Bread, Rent and Fuel: Necessity Inflation and the Far-Right Vote in Europe, 2004-2021

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Abstract: Inflation has been blamed for political radicalisation since Weimar, and inflation surprises have been followed by gains for extremist parties since 1948; which prices carry the cost, for which voters and to whose benefit, is unknown. We read the two decades before the 2021-22 surge as a closed episode of European economic history: three world commodity cycles (2007–08, 2011-12, 2014-16) moved the prices of necessities through 56 elections in 20 European countries. A new dataset links the vote recalled in 56 post-election surveys to the contribution of food, rents, household energy, motor fuels and transport to the inflation of each electoral cycle, with pre-cycle budget weights and at constant tax rates, and to regional conditions estimated from Eurobarometer interviews. Comparing each country with itself across cycles – a difference-in-differences with a continuous dose, with the rest of inflation as a negative control – we find that only the far-right gains from these prices themselves: one point of inflation in necessities rather than elsewhere raises the odds of a far-right vote by about 15 per cent, concentrated in market prices, in cycles of weak growth and, late in the period, where households expect their finances to worsen. Inflation elsewhere favours the traditional right; when necessities get dearer, it loses where conditions are worst, to the socialist left and the greens, not to the far-right.

Keywords: far-right voting; economic history of voting; inflation inequality; cost of living; systemically significant prices; difference-in-differences; shift-share design; Europe, 2004-2021

JEL Classification System: D72, E31, N14, N44, P16, C11

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1. Introduction

Inflation has political costs, and they are not only the incumbent's. Across eighteen advanced economies since 1948, inflation surprises have been followed by higher vote shares for extremist, anti-system and populist parties, by about 15 per cent for a surprise of ten percentage points and by about twice as much when real wages fall (Federle et al., 2024); after financial crises, far-right parties increase their vote share by about 30 per cent (Funke et al., 2016); and unexpected inflation has cost governing parties votes for as long as the economic vote has been measured (Palmer & Whitten, 1999). That evidence - the vote shares of radical parties regressed on inflation surprises with country and year fixed effects - is the point of departure of this paper, and what it leaves open is which prices carry the cost. It is worth highlighting how headline inflation averages inflation experiences that differ across households: a point of inflation in rents and heating is not a point of inflation in cars and restaurant meals; a shock that arrives from world commodity markets is not a tax raised by the government that faces the voters; and the same rise in the price of bread weighs on a household that spends a fifth of its budget on food as it does not weigh on one that spends a tenth. Based on this premise, this paper asks which prices move the vote, for which voters, and to whose benefit, over two decades between the end of the Great Moderation and the inflation surge of 2021-2022.

For three decades, European voters could afford to forget inflation. It returned in 2021-2022, when euro-area inflation reached 10.6 per cent, driven above all by energy and food (Pallotti et al., 2023). It came from the supply side, unleashed by the pandemic and by the Russian attack on Ukraine (Weber et al., 2026). In the "overlapping global emergencies of the pandemic, climate change and geopolitical confrontations, supply shocks have become frequent and inflation has returned" (Weber et al., 2024). Such shocks are unlikely to stay exceptional. Climate change and geopolitical tension make them more probable, and an energy transition that relies on carbon markets can add shocks of its own, as carbon prices reach the fuels that households burn at home and on the road (Weber et al., 2026).

Some prices matter more than others for this kind of inflation. Hockett and Omarova (2016) called them systemically significant prices, by analogy with systemically important financial institutions: prices of market-wide importance, such as those of energy, labour and certain foodstuffs. Weber et al. (2024) turned the idea into a measure for price stability. In their input-output model, the most systemically significant prices are those whose shocks move the general price level most. In the

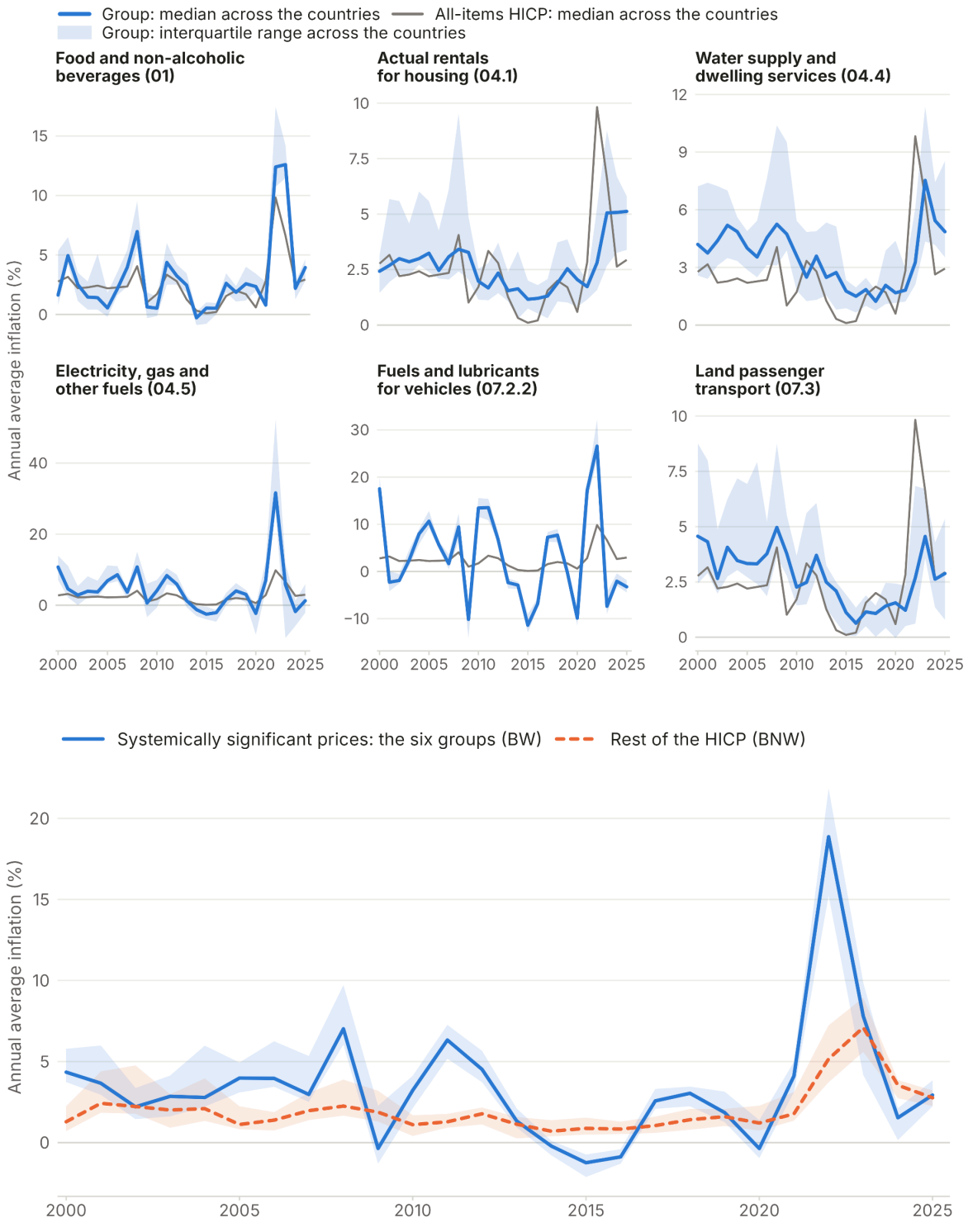
United States, they belong to energy, other basic production inputs, basic necessities such as food and housing, and commercial infrastructure (Weber et al., 2024). In Germany, energy, food and agriculture had an outsized impact on the inflation that followed the invasion of Ukraine (Weber et al., 2026).

Many of these are also the prices of necessities, and that gives them their political charge. Households can postpone a new car, but not the rent, the heating or the journey to work, and demand management is unlikely to bring the prices of necessities down substantially (Weber et al., 2024). Keynes points out that a change in the level of prices "is important only insofar as its incidence is unequal" (Weber et al., 2024), and price shocks fall unequally twice: between wages and profits, and between richer and poorer households. Addressing the prices phenomenon fundamentally means addressing differences between those categories. In simulations for the United States, uncompensated shocks to food and housing prices hit wage earners almost exclusively (Weber et al., 2024), and the weight of these goods in household budgets varies by income level (Lara Jauregui et al., 2025). Figure 1 shows how volatile the inflation of six such groups – food, rents, water and dwelling services, household energy, motor fuels and land passenger transport – has been since 2000 in the twenty countries we study.

Figure 1[2] and 2[3]. Inflation of the six groups of systemically significant prices since 2000 (Fig.1, Decomposed; Fig.2, Average of Weber's Basket vs. the rest of HICP)

[2]Annual average rate of change of the harmonised index of consumer prices (HICP) of each group, in per cent: the median across the twenty countries of the paper (blue line; for every group but food, 16 countries in 2000 and 18 countries in 2001), the interquartile range across them (blue band) and, for reference, the median of the all-items HICP (grey line). Land passenger transport combines passenger transport by railway, by road and combined passenger transport, with their HICP weights. Source: Eurostat, HICP; Author's calculations.

[3] Annual average rate of change, in per cent, of the six groups of systemically significant prices taken together (BW, solid blue line) and of all other items of the harmonised index of consumer prices (BNW, dashed orange line): median across the twenty countries of the paper; the bands show the interquartile range across countries (16 countries in 2000 and 18 in 2001). The six groups are aggregated with their HICP item weights of each year, and the rest is the all-items rate net of the six groups. The models use the contributions of the two aggregates to cumulative inflation over each electoral cycle, not these annual rates. Source: Eurostat, HICP; Author's calculations.



Current scholars call *the second inequality is inflation inequality*. It means that we have households with different incomes buy different baskets, and these differences "create the potential for inflation inequality" (Jaravel, 2021). In the United States, inflation was about 0.35 percentage points a year higher for the poorest fifth of households than for the richest in 2004-2015, a gap sustained over at least a decade (Jaravel, 2021). The gap widens in bad times. For the goods recorded in scanner data,

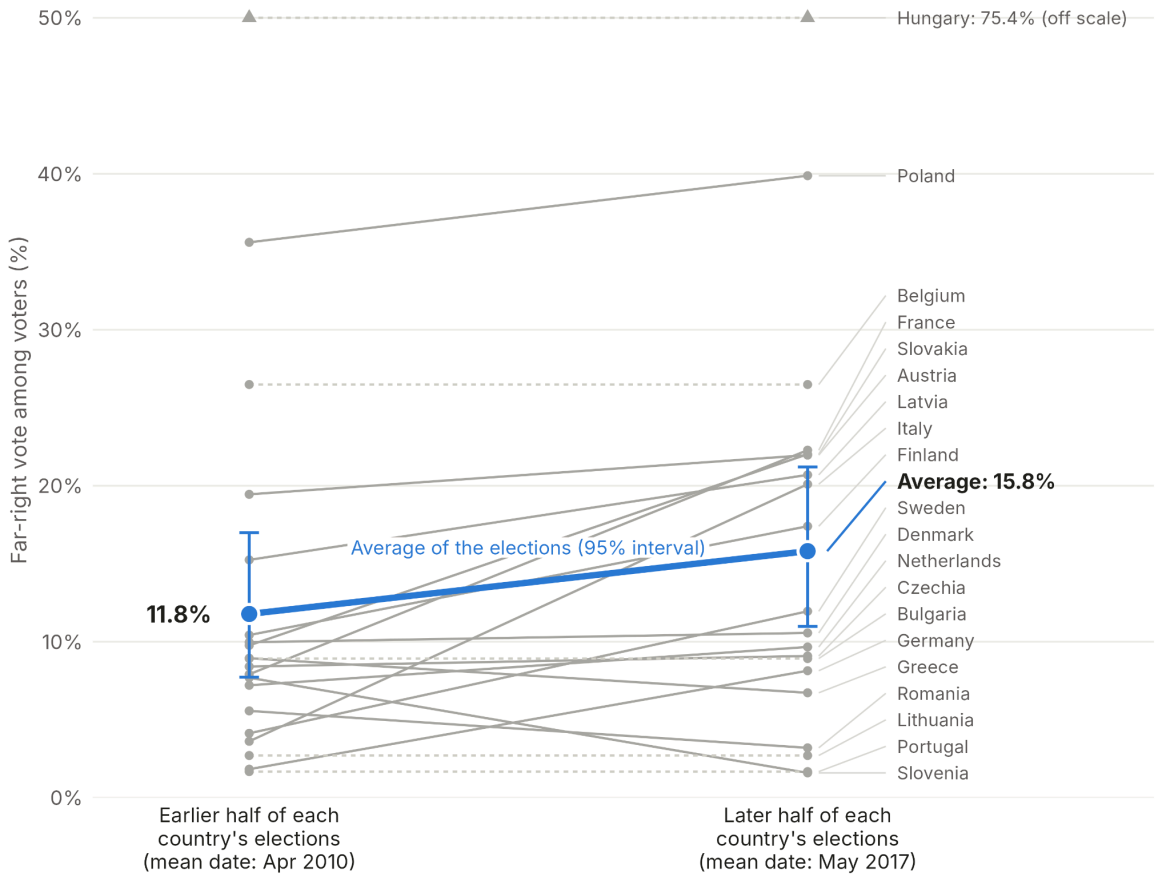
the gap between the lowest and the highest income quartile rose from 0.22 points a year during the time range 2004-2007 to 0.85 during 2008-2013 (Argente & Lee, 2021). Part of the difference came from margins that mostly richer households could use, such as trading down in quality and shopping around (Argente & Lee, 2021). In the official price statistics, the gap also runs through rent and energy, on which the poorest quarter of households spends a larger share of its budget and whose prices rose faster than average (Klick & Stockburger, 2021).

Europe's recent surge followed the same lines, we have trends for food and energy weighing more in poorer households' budgets. By 8.4 percentage points between the bottom and the top income quintile in the EU-15, and by 16.9 points in the other member states (Menyhért, 2022). The shock of 2021-2022 was expected to raise material deprivation most in Central and Eastern Europe (Menyhért, 2022). Inequality measures that deflate every income by the same index underestimate such effects. In five large member states, indexing every income to the harmonised index of consumer prices (HICP) would not have undone the effect of the food inflation of 2020-2023 (Aprea & Raitano, 2025). In the largest euro-area economies, rigid rents shielded poorer tenants and energy price caps cut the losses (Pallotti et al., 2023). The inflation of necessities is a distributive event, and distributive events have political consequences.

As part of the same historical dynamics, far-right politics has risen over the same time. Based on Pirro's concept (2023), *far-right wing* embodies an umbrella concept for the (populist appealing) radical right and the extreme right, whose shared core is nativism and authoritarianism and whose members differ in their allegiance to democracy. Across Europe, its average vote share tripled from about 5 per cent in 1999 to 15 per cent in 2014 (Georgiadou et al., 2018). The crises of 2008 and 2015 spurred an increase in far-right wing support, at the expense of both the mainstream left and the mainstream right (Halikiopoulou & Vlandas, 2022). Within the countries we study, our estimates show the far-right vote growing in every social class; among workers, its predicted share rose from about 10 to 17 per cent over a decade. The survey shares tell the same story: comparing each country with itself, the far-right share of voters rises from 11.8 per cent in the earlier half of its elections (mean date April 2010) to 15.8 per cent in the later half (May 2017), and it rises in 12 of the 15 countries with more than one election (Figure 2).

Figure 3[4]. The far-right vote in the earlier and the later half of each country's elections

[4] Far-right share of the vote reported in the post-election surveys of the Comparative Study of Electoral Systems (CSES), abstainers excluded and survey weights applied, in the 56 elections of the paper (20 countries). Each country's elections are ordered in time and split at the middle: the first half form the earlier moment and the second half the later one; the middle election of a country with an odd number of elections counts half in each, so that each country has the same weight in both moments. Grey lines: countries (dashed: a single election); blue: the average of the elections in each moment, with 95% intervals from a bootstrap of countries. Hungary (a single election, 75.4 per cent) is drawn at the top edge, off scale. Sources: CSES; The PopuList (Rooduijn et al., 2024); Author's calculations.



Why it rose is still debated, and economics has regained a place in the answer. Research on the radical-right vote was long "dominated by noneconomic explanations based on anti-immigration attitudes and racial resentment", until the Great Recession put the spotlight back on its economic roots (Abou-Chadi & Kurer, 2021). The accounts that followed stress threat more than hardship: unemployment presents positive but small effects (Georgiadou et al., 2021), occupational unemployment risk, however, raises the probability of a radical-right vote from about 6 to over 17 per cent (Abou-Chadi & Kurer, 2021), and insecurity feeds the far-right where social protection is weak (Halikiopoulou & Vlandas, 2022). Economic and cultural grievances also work together. Successful right-wing populist parties add to their culturally motivated core a larger periphery of voters worried about the economic effects of immigration (Halikiopoulou & Vlandas, 2022). In Western Europe, economic insecurity has become a stronger predictor of choosing the radical right over the centre-right since 2008 (Abou-Chadi et al., 2022). The centre-right, in turn, is mentioned in the literature as by far the largest source of the radical right's new voters (Abou-Chadi et al., 2022).

Prices are the missing piece. The literature on the far-right vote concerns jobs, incomes, status and risk; inflation, the economic experience that every household shares, appears only at its edges, in the two bodies of evidence with which we opened – the incumbent's loss from unexpected inflation (Palmer & Whitten, 1999) and the gains of extremist and populist parties taken together after inflation surprises (Federle et al., 2024) – neither of which separates the prices that households cannot avoid from the rest, or the far-right from the other families that might gain. Some studies of single prices in single countries, such as electricity in Sweden and rents in Germany, find votes moving toward the radical right (Brännlund & Peterson, 2024; Held & Patana, 2023), though not all (Brännlund et al., 2024). What remains missing, to our knowledge, is a comparative test that separates the inflation households cannot avoid from inflation in general and asks which parties gain when it rises.

This paper offers such a test, and it offers it for an episode that can now be read as history. The two decades between 2004 and 2021 were not years without inflation; they were years in which inflation came in cycles that fell on necessities. The world commodity booms of 2007-08 and 2011-12 and the collapse of 2014-16 carried the prices of food, energy and motor fuels through 56 national elections held in twenty European countries, and they did so at different moments of each country's electoral calendar, so that the same world cycle reached one country at the end of a cycle of weak growth and another at the beginning of a recovery, one with a large budget share of fuels and another with a large share of rents. Over the same two decades, the far-right share of voters in these countries rose from 12 to 16 per cent. The episode is closed, since it ends before the surge of 2021-2022, and it is long enough to contain, for twelve of the twenty countries, three or more electoral cycles with different exposures to the same shocks; it can therefore be read as historians read an episode, by comparing each country with itself across its cycles, and it provides the baseline against which the politics of the surge that followed will have to be measured. The work of the paper is therefore, first, the historian's work – the episode has to be dated cycle by cycle, and its sources built, before it can be read – and only then the econometrician's.

To read the episode we assemble a merged dataset that links, at the level of the electoral cycle, sources that had not been linked before. The vote recalled by the 58,565 respondents of 56 post-election surveys of the Comparative Study of Electoral Systems, with their occupation and their region of residence, is matched to the contribution of six groups of systemically significant prices – food, rents, water and dwelling services, household energy, motor fuels and land passenger transport – to

the cumulative inflation of the cycle that preceded each election, built from Eurostat's harmonised sub-indices with the budget weights of the year the cycle begins; we call it the Weber Basket (BW), after the measure of Weber et al. (2024) that selects these groups, and we set it against the contribution of all other prices, the Negative Weber Basket (BNW). Eurostat's index at constant tax rates, reconstructed by chaining where its series begin late, splits each basket into the part that came from market prices and the part that came from changes in indirect taxes. Three regional conditions are built for the 98 regions in which the respondents live: perceived economic insecurity and immigration salience, estimated by multilevel regression and post-stratification from the standard Eurobarometer waves of 2003 to 2021; physical dependence on the basket's goods and the service configuration of the regional economy, from Eurostat's regional accounts and energy balances. Party families follow The PopuList and the Chapel Hill Expert Survey, with every party code of the surveys mapped by hand; the incumbency of each family comes from the cabinet records of ParlGov; and the world prices of food, oil, gas and coal, combined with each country's pre-cycle generation mix, give the basket a world-price counterpart. Section 3 describes the construction and its verification; the dataset, the code and the methodological appendix are public.

The design compares each country with itself. Because the budget weights are fixed before the cycle's prices move, the exposure is a dose that the households who receive it did not choose; because the comparison runs within countries, across cycles, with calendar years common to all countries voting in them, no stable difference between countries and nothing common to a European year enters the estimate; and because the rest of inflation shares the common causes of basket inflation – the cycle, monetary conditions, the timing of elections – without its content, it serves as a negative control: an effect of the basket that the rest does not show cannot be the generic economic vote. The identifying assumption is that of a difference-in-differences with a continuous dose, and its observable implications – the balance of the pre-cycle weights, placebo exposures built from the next cycle's prices, the trend of the far-right vote – are tested before the estimates are read. Bayesian multilevel logistic models estimate the design for the far-right, the socialist left, the traditional right and the greens; the comparison extends to four conditions of exposure – physical dependence on the basket's goods, perceived insecurity, the post-industrial configuration that structural change toward services has given the regional economy, and growth – to change over time across cycles and to the voters

of the previous election; and each model has a mirror built on world commodity prices, which serves as a test of robustness and as a reading of mechanisms.

The answer is relational rather than a simple push. T*he basket pushes voters toward the far-right, but modestly and with uncertainty.* Its contrast with the rest of inflation is positive in every specification that uses the basket, with posterior probabilities near 0.9 in the main ones. *The push appears mainly in market prices, in cycles of weak growth and, late in the period, where households expect their finances to worsen.* The traditional right gains from the rest of inflation and loses to the basket where conditions are worst, and the voters it loses move toward the left-wing parties and "the greens" at least as much as toward the far-right. The evidence also suggests that the left-wing party family, which once captured the grievance of necessities where insecurity was widespread, has been losing that capacity as the far-right has been gaining it.

The paper thus adds the cost of living to the economic sources of the far-right vote, gives inflation inequality a political dimension that its measurement has left aside, and answers, for one bounded episode and with individual data, the question that the comparative evidence on inflation surprises leaves open: which prices, for whom, and to whose benefit. It also leaves a dataset that links elections, prices and regions at the level of the electoral cycle, and that can be extended backwards to the elections of the 1990s and forwards to the surge of 2021-2022 without a change of design. The next section develops the argument and the hypotheses; Section 3 presents the dataset, the design and the estimation; Section 4 reports the results; Section 5 discusses their relational elements and what they imply for the inflation that followed the episode.

2. Theoretical Discussion and Hypotheses

Prices that households cannot avoid – food, rent, heating, and the fuel and fares of getting to work – are the part of inflation over which they have least choice and policy least control: demand for basic necessities is relatively inelastic, so that demand management is unlikely to bring their prices down substantially (Weber et al., 2024). Whether their inflation moves votes toward the far-right wing is less settled than the coincidence of rising prices and far-right gains suggests: the evidence on inflation and voting is divided between studies of incumbents, of extremist parties taken together and of single prices in single countries, and it points in different

directions. This section argues that *the composition of inflation, more than its level, carries the political charge, and that the far-right might be the likeliest beneficiary when the shock falls on necessities and is felt as a loss of relative position*. To test *rising-prices-far-right-voting*, we state one main hypothesis (H1) and four conditions under which the push should be stronger (H1a-H1d); two hypotheses on its change over time, among workers (H2) and where perceived economic insecurity is widespread (H3); and one on the flow of votes from the traditional right to the far-right (H4). Two cross-tests then separate prices from the taxes and governments behind them, and identify the voters who actually move.

The table below states each hypothesis and the quantity that tests it. Throughout, *BW* is then *Weber's Basket* – the contribution of systemically significant prices to the inflation of an electoral cycle – and BNW the *Negative Weber's Basket*, the contribution of all other prices; δ is the difference between the effects of the two, both measured as deviations from the country's own average (the *within* contrast), so that δ > 0 means that the basket moves the vote more than the same amount of inflation elsewhere would.

Hypothesis	**Quantity (within-country, log-odds)**
H1 Systemically significant price inflation pushes voters toward the far-right	δ: the basket against the rest of inflation, within countries
H1a The push is stronger where households depend physically on the basket's goods (PHY)	the change of δ per standard deviation of PHY
H1b The push is stronger where perceived economic insecurity is widespread (INS)	the change of δ per standard deviation of INS
H1c The push is stronger where employment and income depend on services (SERV)	the change of δ per standard deviation of SERV
H1d The push is stronger in cycles of weaker economic growth (GDP)	the change of δ per standard deviation of real GDP growth over the cycle (negative expected)
H2 The push toward the far-right grows over time among workers	δ for the working class and its change per decade; the working − salariat difference of both
H3 The push grows over time where perceived economic insecurity is widespread	the change per decade of δ at INS +1 SD and of its moderation by INS
H4 The far-right takes votes from the traditional right	δ positive for the far-right and negative for the traditional right; the same contrast among last time's traditional-right voters; the traditional right's loss by who governs and by the tax part of prices

The party family at the centre of the paper is the far-right, in the sense that Pirro (2023) gives the term: an umbrella concept that brings together the "(populist) radical" and the "extreme" variants of right-wing politics – "all those ultranationalist collective actors sharing a common exclusionary and authoritarian worldview – predominantly determined on sociocultural criteria – yet varying allegiances to democracy" (Pirro, 2023, p. 103). The two constituent subsets differ in their stance toward democracy: the radical right challenges the liberal foundations of

contemporary democracies but competes within the bounds of democratic rule, whereas the extreme right rejects the constitutional order outright (Pirro, 2023).

We prefer the umbrella term to either of its parts for the reason Pirro gives: *the borders between the two have become porous – radical-right parties bear extremist elements in their midst, nurture links with anti-democratic actors or act, even occasionally, in breach of the constitutional order* – so that a more abstract genus "may thus better delimit this phenomenon and enhance conceptual precision through its aggregative power" (Pirro, 2023, p. 102). The cost of climbing the ladder of abstraction is a loss of intension, the actors' attitude toward democracy (Pirro, 2023), but this fits for studies of the economic sources of their vote, that attitude is not the defining attribute, and the gain is a family whose membership does not depend on classifying each party, in each election, on a boundary that the parties themselves have been crossing. Operationally, the families' taxonomy follows The PopuList (Rooduijn et al., 2024), which classifies parties as far-right by expert-informed qualitative comparative classification, with the party positions of the Chapel Hill Expert Survey (Rovny et al., 2025), used to confirm or rethink the radical-right and extreme-right assignments at the margin, as the Methods section describes.

About prices, our approach is to deal with prices that households cannot avoid. Economic voting gives inflation a clear political address. When prices rise faster than voters had reason to expect, governing parties lose votes – 1.1 percentage points per point of unexpected inflation across nineteen democracies between 1970 and 1994 – because surprise inflation erodes savings and contract wages and signals incompetence (Palmer & Whitten, 1999). Under the current context, the far-right is a less obvious beneficiary. Across eighteen advanced economies since 1948, inflation surprises have been followed by higher vote shares for extremist, anti-system and populist parties, by about 15 per cent for a surprise of ten percentage points and by about twice as much when real wages fall (Federle et al., 2024). Yet headline aggregate inflation did not move the extreme-right vote in the European Union between 1995 and 2012 (Doležalová, 2015), it is worthy remembering the German cities hardest hit by the 1923 hyperinflation later voted more for a party of inflation victims and for the Communists, and turned out less, without voting more for the Nazis (Galofré-Vilà, 2023). Studies of single prices show clues of heterogeneity: across Swedish electoral districts, exposure to household electricity costs raised support for the Sweden Democrats, modestly, while the Centre Party lost (Brännlund & Peterson, 2024); the 2022 electricity shock to Swedish manufacturing communities instead rewarded the incumbent Social Democrats, who had promised compensation

(Brännlund et al., 2024); rent increases made German renters more likely to vote for the Alternative for Germany (Held & Patana, 2023); and rising local rents raised its support among low-income long-term renters while lowering it among better-off renters (Abou-Chadi et al., 2025).

- H1. *In electoral cycles in which systemically significant prices contribute more to inflation than is usual for a country, the probability of a far-right vote is higher – and higher than the same amount of inflation in other prices would make it.*

Two features of evidence motivate our argument for deepening investigations over price effects in a more complex-fashioned approach to understand political preferences for far-right. First, the effect of inflation depends on which prices rise. Headline inflation mixes prices that households can postpone with prices they cannot. Weber et al. (2024) find that the systemically significant prices fall into four groups – energy, basic production inputs, basic necessities such as food and housing, and commercial infrastructure – because their weight in consumer budgets, their volatility and their links to other prices carry their shocks through the whole price system; and Lara Jauregui et al. (2025) show that the budget shares of these goods decline with income, so that their shocks redistribute real income away from poorer households: in their simulation of the 2022 price shocks, food alone raised inflation by 1.06 per cent for the poorest decile and by 0.47 per cent for the richest. A measure of inflation that does not separate these prices from the rest averages the shock that voters feel with price changes they barely notice. Second, who gains depends on how the shock is read. Necessities usually become dearer without a decision that voters can see, and the far-right supplies a reading in which mainstream governments, their climate and energy policies, or outsiders are to blame (Brännlund & Peterson, 2024; Funke et al., 2016). A governing party that promises compensation can capture the grievance instead (Brännlund et al., 2024), and in hard times the left-wing has sometimes gained more than the far-right (Doležalová, 2015; Galofré-Vilà, 2023). *The far-right's advantage should be sharpest when the shock falls on necessities and is felt as a loss of relative position rather than as outright deprivation*, since there are also chance for who is falling into hardship to tend to move left-choice or to abstain (Bornschier & Kriesi, 2013; Kurer, 2020). We measure the shock as the contribution of a basket built on these categories – food, rents, water and dwelling services, household energy, motor fuels and land passenger transport – to cumulative inflation over each electoral cycle, and compare it, within the same country, with the contribution of all other prices, and comparing with other parties' families preferences. We therefore investigate our first hypothesis (*H1*): During electoral cycles in which systemically significant prices

account for a larger share of inflation than a country's historical norm, the probability of voting for the far-right increases.

- H1a. *The push toward the far-right is stronger where households depend physically on the basket's goods;*
- H1b. *The push toward the far-right is stronger where perceived economic insecurity is widespread;*
- H1c. *The push toward the far-right is stronger where employment and income depend on services, the post-industrial configuration;*
- H1d. *The push toward the far-right is stronger in electoral cycles of weaker economic growth.*

The same national price changes do not reach every household with the same force. We distinguish two logics of exposure – physical dependence on the basket's goods, which governs how much of the shock arrives, and the structure of employment and income, which governs how it is absorbed – and two conditions under which the shock is read: the climate of expectations and the growth of the economy. Each condition moderates the same within-country contrast δ and is read at one standard deviation below and above its mean, two points that must lie within the observed support of the moderator (Hainmueller et al., 2019); because every moderator is standardised, the four conditions can be compared in a common unit. Each is also estimated for the rest of inflation, so that a condition specific to the basket should amplify the basket and not prices in general.

Physical dependence (H1a). Households cannot stop heating their homes, driving to work or paying rent when these prices rise; housing, for instance, owes its systemic significance mainly to its large weight in consumer expenditure (Weber et al., 2024). Dependence varies across regions with climate, settlement and tenure. In Sweden, exposure to electricity costs – which rests on heating needs relative to income – raised the Sweden Democrats' vote most in the districts where those costs weighed most (Brännlund & Peterson, 2024). In Germany, rent increases raised renters' probability of voting for the Alternative for Germany, most in high-rent areas and among low-income renters, mainly through a direct economic channel and only partly through hostility toward refugees (Held & Patana, 2023); and local rent appreciation moved low-income renters toward the party and better-off renters and owners away from it (Abou-Chadi et al., 2025). We capture physical dependence with a regional index, PHY, of car dependence, the long-run normal of heating degree-days and the share of tenants. Because these components are specific to the content of the basket – fuels, heating, rents – PHY should amplify the basket and not

the rest of inflation, an asymmetry that speaks against explanations through inflation in general or through the business cycle.

Perceived economic insecurity (H1b). Economic insecurity is "the psychologically mediated experience of inadequate protection against hardship-causing economic risks" (Hacker et al., 2013): worries follow shocks without being the same thing, and they are more unequally distributed than the shocks themselves. For the far-right, the perception of decline matters more than decline itself. Among routine workers in Switzerland and the United Kingdom, support for the radical right is higher among those who keep their jobs in a shrinking occupational segment than among those who lose them and become unemployed (Kurer, 2020). Lower subjective social status predicts support for the populist right net of income and unemployment (Gidron & Hall, 2017), and local rent appreciation acts as the "looming threat of impending economic decline" rather than as acute hardship (Abou-Chadi et al., 2025). Economic insecurity shocks raise the populist vote in Europe both directly and through falling trust (Guiso et al., 2024); and the populist right's success depends on mobilising, beside its culturally motivated core, a periphery of voters concerned with the economic effects of immigration, while objective risks such as unemployment raise its vote mainly where social protection is weak (Halikiopoulou & Vlandas, 2022). We measure perceived insecurity as a regional index, INS: the share of households that expect their finances to worsen over the next year – a subjective item that rises with material measured and falls with access to public benefits (Maroto & Pettinicchio, 2023). The regional share describes a climate of expectations, not the insecurity of individual respondents; and because expectations respond to prices, the moderation shows where the push concentrates rather than a condition that precedes it.

Post-industrial configuration (H1c). Post-industrial economies concentrate employment in services, and service employment is polarised. Production and service workers are the classes among which the radical right is most successful, with 31 and 23 per cent of their votes in nine Western European democracies with a strong radical right (Oesch & Rennwald, 2018), and the knowledge economy concentrates good jobs in large cities while the relative status of men without a college education declines, in a combined case for rising far-right (Gidron & Hall, 2017). Large service-based cities are also where housing costs press hardest: the effect of rent increases on the vote for the Alternative for Germany is larger in high-rent urban areas (Held & Patana, 2023), and rental market risk raises its support among low-income renters in cities but not in rural or suburban localities (Abou-Chadi et al., 2025). The rival configuration is the industrial one: regions exposed to import

competition moved toward nationalist and radical-right parties (Colantone & Stanig, 2018), and the British National Party is mentioned done best in working-class areas that depended on manufacturing (Goodwin & Cutts, 2013). We then measure the heterogeneity this configuration could allow, based on a regional index, SERV, that combines the share of employment in services with household disposable income per head, both in the year before the cycle; a high value marks a service-based and comparatively affluent region, where employment and income depend on services. If the push of the basket is stronger there, its political force lies in the post-industrial economy; if it is weaker, it lies in regions that are more industrial or agricultural and poorer. Because most consumer services are priced outside the basket, the same moderation is read for the rest of inflation, which tells whether the configuration amplifies the basket or prices in general.

Weaker growth (H1d). The same rise in the price of necessities weighs more when incomes are not growing. The political effect of inflation surprises seems concentrated in episodes in which real wages fall (Federle et al., 2024), and monitoring the economic growth is an one-angle view for the wage state. The evidence on growth itself is mixed. Falls in regional income per head raise the far-right vote in Europe (Rao et al., 2018), and far-right parties increase their vote share by about 30 per cent after financial crises, less after ordinary recessions and not significantly after other macroeconomic disasters (Funke et al., 2016); but in the European Union between 1995 and 2012, aggregate analysis took evidences the extreme-right vote was not related to typical macroeconomic indicators such as growth (Doležalová, 2015), nonetheless in Weimar Germany it was the deflation and correlate growth situation of the early 1930s, not the hyperinflation, that underwent with the Nazi vote (Galofré-Vilà, 2023). Whether a shock to systemically significant prices weighs more in cycles of weak growth is what H1d tests: it is measured as real GDP growth over the months of the cycle that ends in the election; it has no regional series, so this is the one condition tested in a national version of the model, and because growth also responds to price shocks, its moderation is read as a conditional association.

- H2. *Systemically significant price inflation pushes workers toward the far-right, and the push grows over time.*

Workers (H2). The far-right's electorate has become increasingly working class. Especially at the end of 1990s the working class became the aimed-clientele of right-wing populist parties in Western Europe (Oesch, 2008), and across fifteen Western European polities between 1980 and 2002 the effect of belonging to the

working class on the extreme-right vote grew stronger over time while that of the petty bourgeoisie weakened, which Arzheimer (2013, p. 83) calls "the first truly comparative and longitudinal evidence for a general proletarisation of the extreme right vote in Western Europe". In the 2000s and early 2010s production and service workers supplied half of the radical right's voters in nine Western European democracies (Oesch & Rennwald, 2018), radical-right parties had been mentioned as the new type of working-class party (Oesch, 2013) – in France, for instance, the realignment of workers, driven by generational replacement, benefited the extreme right more than the moderate right (Gougou & Mayer, 2013). Many current studies trace the shift mainly to cultural rather than economic issues (Bornschier & Kriesi, 2013; Oesch & Rennwald, 2018). Meanwhile, for here, we argue that price shocks offer an economic channel that does not run through preferences about redistribution. Shocks to systemically significant prices fall more on wage earners, then working class by excellence, than on profit earners when neither wages nor profits adjust to compensate (Weber et al., 2024), weigh most in the budgets of lower-income households (Lara Jauregui et al., 2025). As the far-right consolidates as a workers' party, the push of the basket among workers should strengthen.

- H3. *Systemically significant price inflation pushes toward the far-right those who live where perceived economic insecurity is widespread, and the push grows over time.*

Perceived insecurity over time (H3). The political weight of perceived insecurity is unlikely to be constant. Declines in subjective status among the groups most exposed to economic change have accumulated over decades, with some of the steepest falls between 2009 and 2014 (Gidron & Hall, 2017), and the populist right's electoral coalition rests on voters concerned with the economic impact of immigration as well as on its culturally motivated core (Halikiopoulou & Vlandas, 2022). A basket shock read in a climate of widespread pessimism confirms the expectation of decline rather than contradicting it, and *the more the far-right becomes the party of that expectation, the more its gains from the shock should concentrate where pessimism is widespread.* H3 therefore asks whether the push where the expectation of worse household finances is high, and its gap with the push where that expectation is low, change from the early to the late elections of each country. As with H1b, the hypothesis concerns a regional climate of expectations rather than the insecure respondents themselves, whom election surveys do not identify.

- H4. *Systemically significant price inflation takes votes from the traditional right and carries them to the far-right.*

In Western Europe the radical right's main competitors are the conservative, Christian-democratic and liberal parties (van der Brug et al., 2013). The two compete for small business owners, and where the radical right is strong, the centre-right's losses, though spread across classes, tend to be larger among service workers, production workers and small business owners than among managers and large employers (Oesch & Rennwald, 2018); in Denmark, more of the voters who left the Danish People's Party in 2019 moved to the Liberals and the Conservatives than to the Social Democrats, which Halikiopoulou and Vlandas (2022) read as a sign that vote switching is more likely between the centre-right and the radical right than between the centre-left and the radical right.

Two developments in the party systems make this competition the likeliest channel of a price shock. The first is the mainstreaming of the far-right. After the turn of the millennium the upward trend of the radical right-wing populist family continued – its average vote share in Western European national elections rose from 8.0 per cent in the 1990s to 12.5 per cent from 2010 to 2015 – and seventeen governments between 1990 and 2015 included, or were supported by, one of its parties (Akkerman et al., 2016). And one of the central reasons pointed out by scholars is that the far-right party core positions (their anti-establishment profile) remain radical, and have on average become more populist, whereas on "nicheness" there is some mainstreaming – the parties have broadened their agendas toward socioeconomic issues (Akkerman, 2016). A far-right that has coalition potential and speaks to the cost of living is, from the standpoint of a traditional-right voter facing dearer necessities, an available destination rather than a protest. The second development is the condition of the traditional right itself, the mainstream party par excellence (Katz & Mair, 2018; Mair, 2014). Diagnosys since 1990s drew a process which parties “at once stronger, but also more remote; at once more in control, but also less powerful; and at once more privileged, but also less legitimate”, whose self-sufficiency “widen[ed] the gap between the citizenry and the established political class” and fed a new wave of right-wing anti-party protest that drew its momentum, among other things based on “the slowdown in economic growth and the perceived inability of policy-makers to make more than small adjustments within an internationally determined economic order” (Mair, 1994, p. 19). Established parties have since shifted their primary role from being agents of citizens to be “agents of government”, which is relevant for the development of new parties in the right-wing (Müller-Rommel, 2016).

3. Data, Methods and Models

This section presents the dataset and the design, in that order, because the dataset is the paper's first result. None of its sources is new in itself: each is public, and most are familiar to political scientists or to economists separately. What did not exist was their junction at the level at which the question lives – the electoral cycle of each country, read in the budget of the household, in the prices of the region and in the vote of the respondent – and the junction is where the work lies: 78 electoral cycles dated to the month, six price groups computed from the raw monthly indices of twenty-five countries with the weights of each cycle's first year, a constant-tax twin reconstructed by chaining where Eurostat's series begin late, 98 regions recovered and three regional indices estimated for them, and every party code of the surveys mapped by hand to a family. Section 3.1 describes that construction and its verification; 3.2 and 3.3 define the outcomes and the exposures; 3.4 to 3.6 present the design that identifies the effect of the basket and the regional reading of exposure; 3.7 to 3.9 the covariates, the estimation and the models. *Table 1* shows the index and variable notation used across all models.

Table 1. Index and Variable Notation

Symbol	Name	Content
BW	Weber's Basket	contribution of six systemically significant HICP groups (Table 3) to cumulative inflation over the electoral cycle, with the weights of the year the cycle begins; percentage points
BNW	Negative Weber's Basket	contribution of all other prices: total cumulative inflation minus BW; the contrast exposure
BW^c, BNW^c	the two baskets at constant tax rates	the market part of each basket, with indirect taxes held at their start-of-cycle rates
BW^t, BNW^t	tax wedges	BW − BW^c and BNW − BNW^c: the part of each basket that comes from changes in indirect taxation
BW^x	commodity core of BW	the three world-priced groups of BW – food, household energy, motor fuels – at domestic prices
WX	World-price Basket	the same three groups with the same weights, at world prices: the shift-share instrument
BNW^x	the rest outside the core	total cumulative inflation minus BW^x: the contrast exposure of WX
within, between	the two parts of an exposure	the deviation of the election from the country's mean over its elections, and that mean (superscripts w and b in the equations of the appendix[5])
δ	the basket contrast	the *within* effect of BW minus the *within* effect of BNW, on the log-odds scale, per percentage point; the quantity every hypothesis refers to

[5] The methodological appendix is attached at the end of this manuscript. The appendix, the dataset at the level of the election study and of the region, and the code that builds the exposures and estimates the models are available at https://github.com/vgmirand/necessity_inflation_far_right_europe.

Symbol	Name	Content
τ	time	the election year in decades, split into its *within* and *between* parts like the exposures
PHY	physical dependence index	regional: car dependence, heating degree-day normal, share of tenants (H1a)
INS	perceived economic insecurity index	regional: share of households expecting their finances to worsen over the next year (H1b, H3)
SERV	service configuration index	regional: share of employment in services and household disposable income per head (H1c)
GDP	growth over the cycle	national: real GDP growth over the months of the cycle (H1d)
EP	energy-poverty index	national control: arrears on utility bills, inability to keep the home warm, damp housing
IMM	immigration salience	regional control: share naming immigration among the country's two most important issues
FR, SOC, TR, GR	the party families	far-right; socialist left; traditional right; greens
Model 1 … Model 7; Model 1^{x} … 3^{x}	the models	one specification per hypothesis (Table 5); the superscript ^{x} marks a world-price mirror, with WX and BNW^{x} in place of BW and BNW

3.1. Sources and construction

The first task of this paper is the one that economic historians perform before any argument: to build, from sources that were not made for the question, the series that the question needs; to date them; to criticise them; and to establish what in them can bear a causal reading. None of the sources used here is new in itself. Each is public, and most are familiar to political scientists or to economists separately; what did not exist was their junction at the level at which the question lives – the electoral cycle of each country, read in the budget of the household, in the prices of the region and in the vote of the respondent. The junction is the work, and this subsection describes it in the order in which it was done: the sources and their coverage, what had to be built, how the result was verified, and what it leaves out. The appendix documents every choice (A2 to A7, A10).

In the empirical challenge for this working paper, five sources enter. (i) The vote and the voter come from the Comparative Study of Electoral Systems (CSES), which give the vote recalled at the election studied and at the previous one, the two-digit ISCO occupation and the employment status from which class is derived (Section 3.7), age, sex, education and the region of residence. The universe is every CSES election study of twenty-five European countries with an election between 2003 and 2021 whose cycle is covered by the monthly price series: 78 election studies, with cycle baselines from February 1999 onward. (ii) Prices come from Eurostat's harmonised index of consumer prices: the monthly indices of the all-items index and of the ECOICOP items down to the four-digit subclasses, from February 1999 to

September 2021; the index at constant tax rates; and the item weights of each year, which are the budget shares of the exposure (Section 3.3). (iii) The regional conditions come from the standard Eurobarometer waves of 2003 to 2021, which carry the two items from which perceived insecurity and immigration salience are estimated, and from Eurostat's regional statistics – population by sex, age and education, employment by sector, household disposable income, cars, heating degree-days, unemployment, density, foreign citizens – and from EU-SILC for the national energy-poverty index; Table A2 of the appendix lists every series with its code, its level and its period. (iv) The party families come from The PopuList 3.0 (Rooduijn et al., 2024) and the Chapel Hill Expert Survey (Rovny et al., 2025), and the composition of the outgoing cabinet from ParlGov (Döring & Manow, 2012). (v) The world prices of the instrument come from the World Bank's monthly food price index, Brent crude, the European natural-gas benchmark and Australian coal, combined with each country's pre-cycle electricity generation mix from Eurostat's energy balances.

Four constructions turn these sources into a dataset, and each is the kind of operation that price history and election history perform on their series. The first is the dating and computation of the exposure. Each of the 78 cycles was dated to the month from the electoral record, with the window defined below, and for each the basket of Section 3.3 was computed from the raw monthly indices with the weights of the year in which the cycle begins, group by group and country by country, with the route through the ECOICOP items recorded wherever a four-digit series is missing and a sub-item route replaces it (Table A3). The second is the reconstruction of the constant-tax series. Eurostat's index at constant tax rates begins in December 2002 for the all-items index and, for the basket's items, in December 2005 in most countries and in December 2012 in seven of them; a basket computed only from it would lose 20 of the 56 elections. The chained definition of Section 3.3 – the monthly change taken from the constant-tax index where it exists and from the ordinary index otherwise, with a coverage diagnostic for every election – is what keeps them, and it is the splice of price history when a series changes base or breaks. The regional indices were then estimated for the 98 regions of the models: perceived insecurity and immigration salience by multilevel regression and post-stratification from the Eurobarometer interviews linked to each cycle (Section 3.6), physical dependence and the service configuration from the regional statistics of the year before the cycle. The fourth is the classification of the vote. Every CSES party code – seven digits that join the polity and a party serial – was mapped by hand to one of five families and verified against the respondent's own polity, a silent source of misclassification in numeric

storage, as well as the far-right assignment follows The PopuList and was confirmed, or rethought at the margin, with the Chapel Hill positions, which also define the green, socialist and traditional-right families country by country and year by year (Section 3.2). The incumbency of each family was coded from the cabinet in office on election day and checked against the ParlGov records, twelve studies being coded from the records themselves and six cells corrected (A7.7).

Of the 78 election studies of the universe, 56 enter the models, by the one rule that the question imposes – a far-right party on the ballot – applied election by election and not country by country, so that a country enters with the elections in which its far-right was on offer and leaves with the others. They run from November 2004 to October 2021 and their cycles begin between February 1999 and 2017; five countries contribute one election, three contribute two and twelve contribute three or more (*Table 4*). The three main families are estimated on the same 56 elections and the greens on the 39 in which a green party received votes, for robustness checking. The regional models rest on the 50,349 respondents of these elections whose NUTS region is known, in 302 election × region cells; the national model of H1d on all 58,565 respondents; the previous-vote populations of Section 4.5 on the 17,126 former traditional-right voters and the 14,634 former socialist voters whose previous vote is known and classified (A3.3).

Before any model is fitted, an independent step recomputes from the raw downloads the baskets and their twins, their within and between parts, the time products, the regional indices and the standardisations; checks the identities – the six group contributions add up to BW, and BW and BNW add up to total inflation, line by line, as well as it runs about 700 integrity checks on the model data, all of which must pass (A10.5). Each model is then fitted on a stratified subsample of at most 20,000 respondents, drawn proportionally from every election × region cell and systematically within it by outcome, class, age, sex, and education, so the sample reproduces the composition of every cell rather than merely matching expectations.

What the dataset leaves out is what its sources leave out. It reads the vote as the respondent recalls it after the election, with the known drift of recall toward the winner and toward the current vote; it reads prices at the national level and conditions at the regional level, so that the intensity with which the same price reaches a household is inferred from the region's dependence rather than observed in the household; and it ends in October 2021, before the surge. The design of Sections 3.4 and 3.5 is built around these limits rather than against them, and the appendix

states them (A14). The dataset at the level of the election study and of the region, the code that builds the exposures and the appendix that documents every choice are public (note 5).

The unit of observation is therefore the respondent of a post-election survey, and the unit at which the exposure varies is the election study: one country, one election. *Table 2* lists the 56 election studies, and every model of the paper is estimated on them; the regional models use the respondents whose region of residence is known.

Table 2. The elections in the models (56 election studies, 20 countries)

Country	Elections	n
Austria	2008, 2013, 2017	3
Belgium	2019	1
Bulgaria	2014	1
Czechia	2010, 2013, 2017, 2021	4
Denmark	2007, 2019	2
Finland	2007, 2011, 2015, 2019	4
France	2007, 2012, 2017	3
Germany	2005, 2009, 2013, 2017, 2021	5
Greece	2009, 2012, 2015 (January), 2015 (September), 2019	5
Hungary	2018	1
Italy	2006, 2018	2
Latvia	2010, 2011, 2014, 2018	4
Lithuania	2020	1
Netherlands	2006, 2010, 2017, 2021	4
Poland	2005, 2007, 2011, 2019	4
Portugal	2019	1
Romania	2004, 2009, 2016	3
Slovakia	2010, 2016, 2020	3
Slovenia	2008, 2011	2
Sweden	2006, 2014, 2018	3

The electoral cycle is the period between the previous election and the one studied. All accumulated exposures are measured over the window that runs from the month before the previous election to the month before the election at hand, so that no price observed after the vote enters the exposure, and all contextual controls are either averaged over the months of the cycle or taken in the year before it begins.

3.2. The outcome and the party families

The outcomes are binary vote recalls: 1 when the respondent reports a vote for a party of the family in question, 0 when the vote went to any other party; abstainers are missing by design. The four families are the far-right, the socialist left (social democrats, socialists, and the radical left), the traditional right (conservatives, Christian democrats, confessional parties, and liberals) and the greens. The far-right family follows The PopuList 3.0 (Rooduijn et al., 2024), which classifies European parties as far-right by an expert-informed qualitative comparative classification. The Chapel Hill Expert Survey (Rovny et al., 2025) serves two purposes: its party positions were used to confirm, or to rethink at the margin, the PopuList's assignment of parties to the radical right and the extreme right; and they define, country by country and year by year, which parties belong to the green, the socialist and the traditional-right families. Every CSES party code was mapped by hand and verified against the respondent's own polity.

Modelling together the traditional right, the socialist left and the greens by comparison follows a *multiverse analysis principle* (Simonsohn et al., 2020; Steegen et al., 2016): the same specification, estimated for the destinations that the same inflation could plausibly have favoured, and strictly on the elections where a far-right offer also existed, so that the comparison is between families and not between samples. Two further model groups, defined by the recalled vote at the previous election – last time's traditional-right voters and last time's socialist voters – are made with the same specification in the second cross-test.

3.3. The exposure: Weber's Basket

The concept comes from Weber et al. (2024), and it comprises whether the price is systemically significant when a shock to it has a large impact on the general price level, through three pathways: the size and volatility of the shock, the extent to which the good is an input to other prices, and its weight in household consumption. The sectors that satisfy these criteria in the United States and in Germany (Weber et al., 2024, 2026) have a direct counterpart in the six groups of the European harmonised index of consumer prices (HICP) listed in *Table 3*. The same sectors are those whose shocks weigh most on the lower half of the income distribution (Lara Jauregui et al., 2025; Weber et al., 2024), which is why class heterogeneity is expected on structural rather than psychological grounds.

Table 3. The six HICP groups of Weber's Basket

Group	COICOP code	Ground for inclusion
Food and non-alcoholic beverages	CP01	basic necessity; food and farms are systemically significant in both countries
Actual rentals for housing	CP041	the housing weight channel; the tenants' cash outlay
Water supply and services relating to the dwelling	CP044	the utilities sector; completes the housing-services block
Electricity, gas and other fuels	CP045	utilities and heating fuels; the largest realised impacts of 2022
Fuels and lubricants for personal transport equipment	CP0722	petroleum products, the most systemically significant sector in both countries
Land passenger transport (rail, road, combined)	CP0731, CP0732, CP0735	land transport, significant through all three channels in Germany; fuel pass-through

Weber's Basket is a Bartik-type aggregate. It is composed through the contribution of the six groups to cumulative HICP inflation over the cycle window, each group weighted by its HICP item weight in the year the cycle begins,

$$BW = \sum_{k \in W} w_k \; 100 \, ln\left(\frac{P_{k,e}}{P_{k,b}}\right), \qquad BNW = \Pi - BW$$

where b and e are the first and last months of the window, w are the pre-cycle weights according to Eurostat data, P is the monthly price index of each group and Π is total HICP inflation over the same window; BNW, the Negative Weber's Basket, is the contrast exposure. Both are in percentage points, and $BW + BNW$ equals total inflation line by line. Fixing the weights at the start of the cycle makes the index a measure of how much the start-of-cycle basket of these goods became dearer, independent of substitution during the cycle.

The basket at constant taxes, its market part and its tax wedge. Part of every price in the basket is a tax: value-added tax on all six groups and excise duties on motor fuels and household energy, both of which governments change, and change most often on exactly these goods. Eurostat compiles, beside the HICP, an index at constant tax rates, which recomputes each item's price as if the rates of VAT and excise duties had stayed at their level in a reference month; the difference between the ordinary index and the constant-tax index is read, by Eurostat and by the European Central Bank, as the contribution of changes in indirect taxes to inflation, on the assumption that tax changes pass fully and immediately into consumer prices (European Central Bank, 2020). A twin of the index at constant taxes, drawn from Eurostat and chained month by month with the ordinary index where the constant-tax series does not exist, isolates the market component of these price changes from changes in indirect taxation. It gives BW^c and BNW^c, the market parts of the two baskets – the change in their prices that came from costs, margins and world prices rather than from tax rates

– and the differences *BW* - BW^{c} and *BNW* - BNW^{c} are the tax wedges BW^{t} and BNW^{t}, the part of each basket's inflation that the mechanical pass-through of tax changes[6] would have produced.

A shift-share construction, and a shift-share instrument. *BW* and *WX* comprise a shift-share (Bartik) aggregate in the sense of Goldsmith-Pinkham et al. (2020) and Borusyak et al. (2025): *the shares are the pre-cycle budget weights (how much of household spending went to each group before the cycle's prices moved) and the shifts are the price changes of the groups over the window*. It is used directly as the exposure, the case in which the shift-share index is the regressor itself (Borusyak et al., 2025, *Table 1*), with *BNW* as its contrast. The World-price Basket, *WX*, is its instrument: the same pre-cycle weights of the three commodity groups: food, household energy and motor fuels, multiplied by the change of world prices over the same window (the World Bank food index, Brent, European gas, Australian coal and an electricity price built from each country's pre-cycle generation mix), so that two elections with the same window face the same world shift and differ only in their weights, and no national election moves the shift (*Figure 4*). The domestic counterpart of *WX*, the commodity core BW^{x}, moves with it within countries: the first stage of the design[7] regresses BW^{x} on *WX* across the 56 elections, with country effects, and gives 0.137 points of observed commodity inflation per point of *WX*, with an F statistic of 16.7, above the conventional threshold of relevance. The causal design here is a type of consumption-side counterpart of the

[6] The assumption behind the wedge is the strong case of tax-incidence theory, in which the consumer bears the whole tax. The evidence places actual incidence below it and makes it uneven: in the French VAT reforms of 1987 and 1999 consumers bore 57 per cent of the tax change in the market for new cars and 77 per cent in housing repair services (Carbonnier, 2007); across European VAT changes, pass-through is close to full for the standard rate but much lower for reduced rates (Benedek et al., 2020); prices respond more to VAT increases than to cuts (Benzarti et al., 2020); and fuel excises are, on average, fully passed on to consumers, with exceptions when refining capacity is tight (Marion & Muehlegger, 2011). Change by change, the wedge therefore overstates the price effect of a tax change, and over a cycle that mixes rises and cuts the net wedge can err in either direction; the appendix states the correction that the models carry for the elections whose constant-tax series does not cover the whole window. The split matters for the vote for a reason that the two literatures on taxes supply together. Because VAT and excises are embedded in posted prices in Europe, households experience the tax wedge as inflation – consumers respond to tax-inclusive posted prices and underreact only to taxes added at the register (Chetty et al., 2009) – so that the two parts of the basket are the same shock to the household budget; but the economic vote runs through the attribution of responsibility (Duch & Stevenson, 2008; Powell & Whitten, 1993), and the tax wedge is the part of the shock that a government decided, whereas the market part is the part it did not. Whether voters punish the two alike is therefore an empirical question, and it is the one the constant-tax model and the tax-split model of the first cross-test answer.

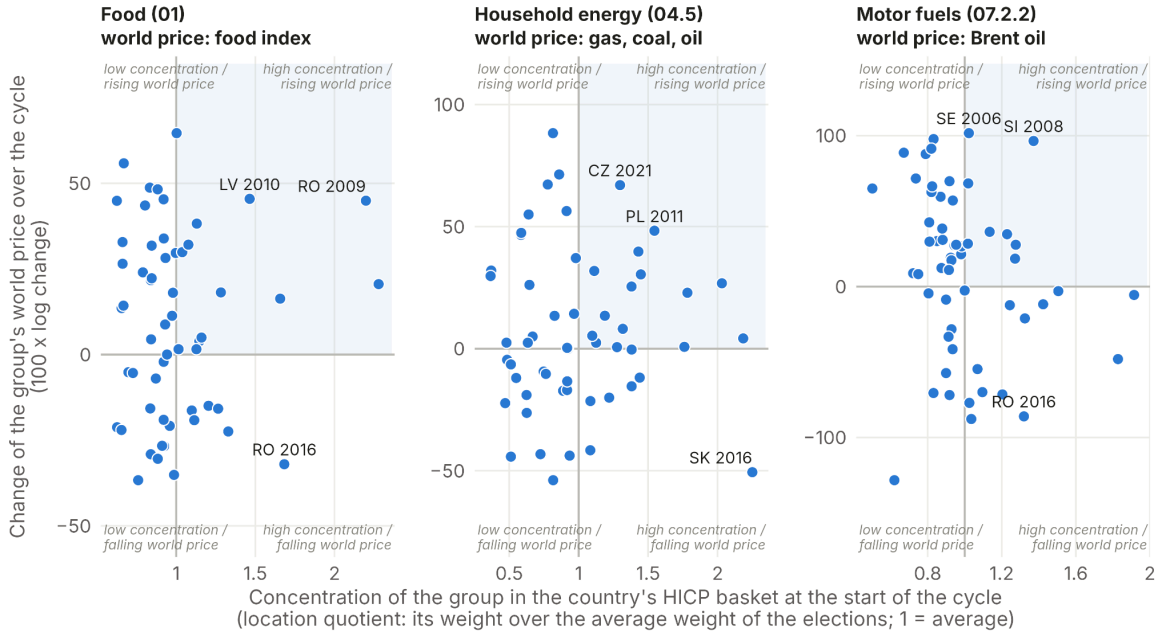
[7] Each hypothesis model has a world-price mirror, identical to it in every term, row and respondent, in which *WX* replaces *BW* and BNW^{x} replaces *BNW*, and the mirror is read beside its original: a basket effect that survives when the shift is a world price that no government, margin or election could have moved is not the product of a domestic price path. The mirror comparison is accompanied, at the election level, by the balance of the weights and of *WX* against pre-cycle conditions and the previous far-right vote, by the Rotemberg weights that say which commodity carries the estimate, by commodity-by-commodity estimates with an overidentification test, and by lead and pre-trend placebos. Their construction and their results are in the methodological appendix.

trade-exposure designs[8] that link far-right voting to import competition, which mobilise the shift-share instrument in the same two steps.

Figure 4[9]. The first stage within countries: observed commodity inflation against the world-price exposure (WX)

[8] The main comparisons: Autor et al. (2020) multiply the industry employment shares of each United States commuting zone in 2000 by the subsequent growth of Chinese import penetration, and instrument the result with other high-income countries' imports from China, with the shares lagged a further decade so that no contemporaneous local condition sets them; Colantone and Stanig (2018) do the same for the NUTS-2 regions of fifteen Western European countries, with pre-sample employment shares, Chinese import growth per worker measured two years before each election and United States imports from China as the instrument; Dippel et al. (2022) stack first differences between German elections, with start-of-period county employment shares, German net import growth from China and Eastern Europe and the trade flows of eight non-euro high-income countries as the instrument; and Malgouyres (2017) builds the exposure of French cantons from start-of-period sector employment and French imports from low-wage countries, instrumented with Chinese exports to eight other high-income countries. In each case the shares describe a pre-period structure of exposure, the shift is a national shock, and the instrument replaces the national shift with a foreign one that the exposed units could not have caused. Our shares are budget weights rather than employment shares, our shifts are price changes rather than import growth, and *WX* is the counterpart of the foreign-imports instrument; the difference that matters for identification is that these designs compare regions within a country-year, so that *country × year fixed effects* absorb the national over-time variation on which our design rests, which is why the within–between decomposition and the calendar-year intercept carry here the role that the fixed effects carry there.

[9] Each point is one of the 56 elections (country and electoral cycle) in one commodity group. Horizontal axis: the group's HICP weight in the year the cycle begins, relative to its average weight across the elections (location quotient; 1 = average). Vertical axis: the change of the group's world price over the cycle (100 × log change): the World Bank food index for food; Brent crude for motor fuels; for household energy, the world prices of gas, oil and coal combined with the weights of its sub-items, electricity being priced by the pre-cycle shares of gas and coal in the country's electricity generation. The product of the two, times the average weight, is the group's part of the world-price exposure WX; the shaded quadrant marks elections with an above-average share and a rising world price. Labels mark, in each panel, the two largest positive parts and the most negative one. Sources: Eurostat (HICP item weights; energy balances); World Bank (Pink Sheet); Author’s calculations.



3.4. Within and Between Countries

The comparison of each country with itself is built into the exposures. Each enters the models decomposed, following Mundlak (1978) and the formulation of Bell and Jones (2015), into two parts: the between part, the country mean over the elections of the model, and the within part, the deviation of the election from that mean. The *within* coefficient is the multilevel counterpart of the coefficient that a specification with country fixed effects would give – the decomposition reproduces the within-country comparison while keeping the random part that places the uncertainty of the exposure at the level of the election (Section 3.8) – and it answers the question of the paper: does a country facing a cycle heavier than its usual in these prices vote differently from itself in its other cycles? Together with the calendar-year intercepts shared by all countries voting in the same year, the within parts make the design a difference-in-differences with a continuous dose and with country and year effects, and the *within* contrast δ between *BW* and *BNW* is the quantity all four hypotheses refer to. The between coefficient answers whether more inflationary countries vote differently, a comparison that mixes the basket with everything else that differs between countries; it stays in the model to absorb that difference and is reported but not interpreted as an effect (Bell et al., 2019; Fairbrother, 2014). Time is treated the same way: the election year, in decades, is split into a country mean and a within deviation, and the products of the within basket with within time are centred a second time within the country, as Giesselmann and Schmidt-Catran (2022) require for an interaction of two time-varying variables.

Because the identification is within countries, the *within* estimate rests on far fewer units than the sample size suggests, and the countries contribute unequally to each block of the model. *Table 4* states the division of labour. The *within* coefficients are identified by the fifteen countries with at least two elections, and the *between* coefficients by one observation per country. A country with a single election is not wasted: it informs the class effects, the controls, the intercept variances and the between part, and it keeps its respondents in the moderation products (Fairbrother, 2014).

Table 4. What countries with one, two and three or more elections contribute

Countries (elections in the model)	**Within basket (BW^w, BNW^w)**	**Between basket (BW^b, BNW^b)**	**Class × within time**	**Basket × time (double-centred)**	**Everything else (class, controls, intercepts)**
one election: Belgium, Bulgaria, Hungary, Lithuania, Portugal (5)	nothing: the deviation is exactly 0	one observation of the country mean	nothing: *within* time is 0	nothing	full contribution
two elections: Denmark, Italy, Slovenia (3)	one comparison: the difference between the two cycles	one observation	one comparison	nothing: with two elections the two deviations are mirror images and the double-centred product is constant (Giesselmann & Schmidt-Catran, 2022, p. 1115)	full contribution
three or more elections: Austria, Czechia, Germany, Finland, France, Greece, Latvia, Netherlands, Poland, Romania, Slovakia, Sweden (12)	t - 1 independent comparisons	one observation	t - 1 comparisons	identified: t- 2 degrees of freedom for the trend of the effect	full contribution

3.5. Identification: a difference-in-differences with a continuous dose

The design is a difference-in-differences with a continuous dose (Callaway et al., 2024; de Chaisemartin & D'Haultfœuille, 2020), of the kind that Borusyak and Hull (2023) call an exposure design: the treatment is a dose that varies at the level of the election – and, through the moderators, of the election × region cell – while the outcome and the heterogeneity are individual. Four ingredients sustain the causal reading, and the conclusion follows only from the four together. The *treatment* is the dose of basket inflation, built from pre-determined weights and the price changes of the cycle: because the weights are fixed before the cycle's prices move, the dose is not chosen by the households that receive it, and because the window closes the month

before the election, no price observed after the vote enters it. The *comparison* is the country against itself across its elections, with calendar-year intercepts common to all countries voting in the same year: nothing stable about a country, and nothing common to a European year such as 2008 or 2015, can produce the estimate (Bell & Jones, 2015; Fairbrother, 2014; Mundlak, 1978). The *identifying assumption*[10] is the parallel-trends assumption of a difference-in-differences with a continuous dose: if the elections in which households devoted a larger share of their budget to these goods were not already on a different far-right trajectory for other reasons when their prices rose, then the within coefficient of *BW* is the effect of the dose. It is an assumption about the shares, the *exogenous-shares route* of Goldsmith-Pinkham et al. (2020), and the only route open to a design whose shocks are three correlated commodity prices in a handful of common episodes rather than the many independent shocks that the alternative route requires (Borusyak et al., 2025). The *negative control* is the rest of inflation: it shares the common causes of basket inflation – the cycle, monetary conditions, election timing – without its content, so that if generic economic voting explained the estimate, *BNW* would show it too, and a basket effect that the rest does not show is one that generic economic voting cannot explain (Lipsitch et al., 2010).

Class and the four conditions of exposure are heterogeneity: they say among whom and where the same dose weighs more. The tax split belongs to a different question: it decomposes the shift into its market part and its tax wedge, and asks whether voters punish the two alike and whether the market part – closer to the world shock than a pre-electoral tax cut – carries the effect (cross-test 1). The world-price mirror of each model, built from the shift-share instrument of Section

[10] The assumption is not testable, but its observable implications are, and we test them at the election level before reading the estimates, with one row per election, country effects and standard errors clustered by country; the appendix reports the tests in full (A12) and we summarise them here. The first is balance. Across countries the budget shares behave as shares of necessities should – they index income, and the summed weight of the three commodity groups is correlated with the previous far-right vote (0.28, SE 0.07) – but the joint test of pre-cycle growth, unemployment and the previous far-right vote on the summed weight does not reject balance across countries ($p = 0.11$); within countries it does ($p < 0.001$), because the fuels weight falls and the food weight rises with pre-cycle growth, which is why pre-cycle growth and unemployment are controls in every model and why the identifying claim is stated about changes within countries rather than about the level of the shares. The second is the placebo in time. This cycle's world-price shift does not predict the previous election's far-right share (−0.08, SE 0.16): there is no pre-trend. The next cycle's shift, which did not yet exist on election day, does predict this election's far-right share (−0.23, SE 0.13, and more once period controls are added); because world commodity prices are serially correlated, we read this lead as a warning that the world shift shares trends with the vote, not as a refutation of the assumption, and it is the reason the world-price mirror is read as a check rather than as the identification (Section 4.1). The third is the trend of the outcome: the within contrast of the basket does not change sign when the models include the within-country trend of the far-right vote; it grows, from 0.05–0.07 to 0.10–0.17, which is what one expects if, without the trend, part of the contrast is confounded with it (note 11). The fourth is the unit of inference: the within estimates rest on the fifteen countries with at least two elections (*Table 4*), and the random part of the model places their uncertainty at the level of the election rather than of the 20,000 respondents (Section 3.8).

3.3, replaces the domestic basket by a counterpart that no government, margin or election could have moved, so that a basket effect that survives the replacement is one that no domestic price path produced. We read the mirror as a test of robustness and as a reading of mechanisms rather than as the identification of the main effect, for a reason that Section 4.1 makes explicit: within a handful of common episodes the world shift shares trends with the vote, and its lead placebo says so.

3.6. Regional exposure: a multidimensional reading

The basket is national; what varies across regions within a country is the intensity with which the same price changes reach households and the conditions under which they are read. *Three regional indices* (all mentioned in *Table 1*), each the mean of standardised components, and *one national* quantity carry that variation, and they are deliberately multidimensional: each captures a different facet of exposure, with a trade-off that the reading of the results must keep in view.

The physical dependence index, PHY. It combines car dependence (cars per thousand inhabitants), the long-run normal of heating degree-days and the share of tenants. That is pure physical exposure – dependence on the goods whose prices are systemically significant: driving, heating, renting – and it is specific to the content of the basket, so that it should amplify *BW* and not *BNW*. Its trade-off is that physical dependence is not fragility: a region with more cars per inhabitant and more heating needs met by purchased energy may be a region with more resources, so *PHY* reads how much of the shock arrives, not how much it hurts.

The perceived economic insecurity index, INS. It is the share of households in the region that expect their finances to worsen over the next year, estimated by multilevel regression and post-stratification from the Eurobarometer interviews of the cycle in four steps: a multilevel logistic regression of the item on sex, age band and education, with random intercepts for country × year, region and region × year; prediction for every cell of the region's population by sex, age and education; post-stratification of the cell predictions by the Eurostat cell counts; and averaging over the interviews linked to the election up to the election month, with weights proportional to the months of each year in the cycle (A7.4; the three waves without the item contribute no interviews). Economic insecurity is the perceived risk of hardship-causing losses and the anxiety that accompanies it (Hacker et al., 2013), and economic security its converse, "the degree to which individuals are protected against hardship-causing

economic losses" (Hacker et al., 2014, p. S6). Such perceptions are in general endogenous to objective conditions: people who experienced lower affordability of primary commodities – food, heating – in the recent past report higher worries about their future consumption, an adaptive-expectations mechanism behind forward-looking insecurity (Ivlevs, 2014). *INS* therefore reads a regional climate of insecurity emerging during the cycle, related to the absence of economic security, but it does not measure direct dependence on the basket's prices, which *PHY* captures; and because it is formed during the cycle, its moderation shows where the push concentrates rather than a condition that precedes it.

The service configuration index, SERV. It combines the share of employment in services with household disposable income per head, both in the year before the cycle. It captures regional aspects that are less related to *BW*, or more distant from it, than *PHY*: *PHY* captures an affluence that is correlated with dependence on the basket's goods, whereas SERV captures the part of the regional economy that is less hit, or not hit, by BW, since most consumer services are priced outside the basket. A high value marks a service-based and comparatively affluent region; the moderation by SERV says whether the push of the basket is stronger there or in regions that are more industrial or agricultural and poorer.

The fourth condition is GDP growth. Real GDP growth over the cycle, GDP, has no regional series and is read in a national version of the model: the test is whether countries, in cycles of more general material progress, are more tolerant of the basket's effects on the vote, or whether the same dose weighs more where incomes stood still. Because growth responds to price shocks, its moderation is a conditional association rather than a pre-determined condition – under low or high economic growth, the *BW*'s inflation has greater impacts?

3.7. Class and Individual Covariates and Contextual Controls

The concept of class used by this study comes from the European Socio-economic Classification (Rose & Harrison, 2010) in its shortened three-class version: salariat (ESeC 1-2), intermediate (3-6) and working class (7-9), all categories deriving from the two-digit ISCO occupation and the employment-status items of the CSES. The working class is the reference category of the regression models. ESeC is built on employment relations – the labour contract against the service relationship

– and so measures the security of the employment bond rather than income, which is what an inflation shock tests (Rose et al., 2010; Smallenbroek et al., 2024).

The regional models control for regional unemployment, population density, the share of foreign citizens, national GDP growth, PHY, the incumbency of the family in question (whether its parties held ministries in the outgoing cabinet, checked against the ParlGov records; Döring & Manow, 2012) and two further quantities that need a word. The first is a national energy-poverty index, EP, built from the three EU-SILC indicators Thomson and Snell (2013) use to quantify the prevalence of fuel poverty across the European Union: arrears on utility bills, inability to keep the home adequately warm, and a leaking roof, damp walls, or rot. It is used only to clean the models of extreme national situations of energy poverty, which are national traits rather than regional exposures; the regional indices carry the main variance. The second is immigration salience, IMM, the share of respondents in the region who name immigration among the two most important issues facing the country, also estimated by post-stratification from the Eurobarometer. Immigration is the crucial predictor of far-right voting in the grievance-mobilisation models that Ivarsflaten (2008) re-examined across seven successful cases – the one grievance that united all of them – and the economic and cultural concerns with immigration are what hold the far-right's voter coalitions together (Halikiopoulou & Vlandas, 2020). The control cleans the variance, so the *treatment BW* basket will have diminished effects under the far-right vote of regions where immigration's concern is too high and already explains it – salience is measured during the cycle, thus that is a conservative control.

3.8. Estimation: mixed models

The design of Section 3.5 is estimated by Bayesian multilevel logistic regressions, for two reasons that the design itself imposes: the exposure varies at the level of the election, so that its uncertainty must be placed there, and several elections have few far-right voters, so that maximum likelihood would separate. The models are mixed models, in the sense that they combine a *fixed part, the coefficients that are common to all respondents*, with a *random part, intercepts that vary across the groups into which the respondents fall and are treated as draws from distributions whose variances the model estimates*. Respondents are nested in election studies, and election studies are crossed by country and by calendar year; respondents also belong to NUTS regions, which are nested in countries and crossed with elections. The exposure varies at the

level of the election, and a predictor must have a random intercept at every level at which it varies, otherwise its standard error is computed as if the 20,000 respondents were independent observations of it (Schmidt-Catran & Fairbrother, 2016). The random part is therefore cross-classified: intercepts for countries, for election studies, for regions and for calendar years, which places the uncertainty of the exposure at the level where it varies, the election, and lets a European year such as 2008 or 2015 be shared by all countries voting in it (Snijders & Bosker, 2012). Throughout this design, an election with few far-right voters borrows strength from the others instead of yielding an infinite or absurd estimate, as maximum likelihood would when the data separate.

The fixed effects part of Model 1 contains the four basket terms (*BW* and *BNW*, each within and between) interacted with class, the individual block, the contextual controls, the incumbency of the family, class × within time, the country mean of time and the double-centred basket × time products by class; the other models change one block of it at a time, as *Table 5* states. Priors are weakly informative in the sense of Gelman et al. (2008): normal(0, 1) on coefficients, normal(0, 0.25) on every term that contains a basket (whose unit is one percentage point of cumulative inflation), a Student-t(3, 0, 2.5) intercept and exponential(1) standard deviations. Four chains of 2,000 iterations (1,000 of warm-up) are run in brms (Bürkner, 2017) on each of the five completions of the class variable (van Buuren, 2018) and the posteriors are pooled, which is the Bayesian form of Rubin's rules; convergence is checked by the split-$\hat{R}$ (Vehtari et al., 2021), the effective sample sizes and the absence of divergent transitions. Each model shown here is fitted on a stratified subsample of 20,000 respondents drawn proportionally from every election × region cell and systematically within it by outcome, class, age, sex and education, with the same respondents in all five completions and in every model of the same family, and a representativeness table compares sample and population for each fit; the subsample limits the individual-level precision only, since the precision of the basket terms is set by the number of elections.

Every result is a posterior contrast on the log-odds scale, reported with its posterior mean, its critical interval and the posterior probability that it is massively positive, the Bayesian counterpart of the Type S error of Gelman and Carlin (2014). The contrast δ is reported for the reference class, for each class and averaged over classes; the moderations as the change of δ when a condition moves from one standard deviation below to one above its mean; and the time quantities as changes per decade, with the predicted vote by class in percentage points five years before and

after each country's mean election year (cross-tests and robustness are reported in the Methodological Appendix).

3.9. The models

The *Table 5* shows the models, one row per hypothesis, named as they are named in the results. All share the random part described above; the fixed part of each is Model 1 with one block changed. In every moderation model the moderator's products exist for *BW* and for *BNW* alike, so that the moderation of the contrast δ, and not only of a coefficient, is identified, and the class products are kept beside them. Moderators that are already controls (*PHY*, *GDP*, *own incumbency*) enter only through their products; *INS*, *SERV* and the other family's incumbency enter with their main effect as well.

Table 5. The models by hypothesis

Model	Fixed part	Hypothesis; families
Model 1: basket, class and time	*BW* and *BNW*, *within* and *between*, × class; individual block; contextual controls; incumbency; class × *within* time; *between* time; double-centred *BW* × time and *BNW* × time, × class	H1 (δ at the country's mean year), H2 (class and change per decade), H4 (sign pattern); *FR, SOC, TR, GR*
Model 2a: moderation by *PHY*	Model 1 without the time terms, plus the four basket terms × *PHY*	H1a; the four families
Model 2b: moderation by *INS*	as 2a, with *INS* and the four basket terms × *INS*	H1b; the four families (the *TR* model re-estimated with a more conservative sampler; the original stands)
Model 2c: moderation by *SERV*	as 2a, with *SERV* and the four basket terms × *SERV*	H1c; the four families
Model 2d: moderation by *GDP* growth (national)	as 2a, with national controls and without the region intercept, plus the four basket terms × *GDP*	H1d; the four families
Model 3: insecurity over time	Model 1 without the class products, plus *INS*, the four basket terms × *INS*, *INS* × *within* time and the double-centred basket × time products × *INS*	H3; the four families
Model 4a: constant taxes	Model 1 with BW^{c} and BNW^{c} in place of *BW* and *BNW* in every term	cross-test 1; the four families
Model 4b: tax split	Model 4a plus the tax wedges BW^{t} and BNW^{t}, *within* and *between*, × class, and the coverage control	cross-test 1; the four families
Models 5a, 5b: the traditional right by who governs	Model 2a's form with the four basket terms × the traditional right's incumbency (5a) or × the socialists' incumbency (5b)	H4, cross-test 1; TR
Models 6a–6d: previous-vote populations	Model 1 of the destination family, among last time's traditional-right voters (6a to *FR*,	H4, cross-test 2

Model	Fixed part	Hypothesis; families
	6b to *SOC*, 6c to *GR*) and last time's socialist voters (6d to *FR*)	
Models 7a–7c: the previous-vote chain	7a: Model 1 and 7b: Model 2a of the far-right with the centred previous-vote categories and their products with the four exposure terms; 7c: Model 1 among those who did not vote far-right last time	H1, H1a, H2 net of the previous vote; FR
Models 1^{x}, 2a^{x}–2d^{x}, 3^{x}: world-price mirrors	the model with *WX* and *BNW*^{x} in place of *BW* and *BNW* in every term	H1–H3 with the shift-share instrument; the four families

4. Results

4.1. Systemically significant price inflation pushes voters toward the far-right: the basket against the rest of inflation within countries (H1)

By the *Table 6* we had reported δ beside its two parts for the four families. For the far-right's model, a typical swing is 2.9 points of cumulative inflation for the basket and 1.8 points for the rest, while on average each contributes about 3.4 points per cycle. A typical swing of the basket is thus almost as large as its usual contribution, a measure of the volatility that, together with their weight in household budgets and their links to other prices, makes these prices systemically significant (Weber et al., 2024).

Table 6. H1: the basket against the rest of inflation within countries (Model 1)

Family	δ per point, average over classes	δ per *within*-country SD	Odds ratio per SD	BW alone, per SD	BNW alone, per SD	δ *between*, per point
far-right (56 elections)	0.143 [−0.076, 0.359] (0.910)	0.328 [−0.178, 0.832] (0.906)	1.39 [0.84, 2.30]	0.197 [−0.082, 0.475] (0.918)	−0.131 [−0.394, 0.136] (0.162)	−0.125 [−0.515, 0.276] (0.252)
Socialist left (56 elections)	0.113 [0.022, 0.202] (0.992)	0.216 [−0.021, 0.454] (0.964)	1.24 [0.98, 1.57]	0.056 [−0.074, 0.186] (0.806)	−0.161 [−0.286, −0.034] (0.007)	0.179 [−0.166, 0.522] (0.852)
Traditional right (56 elections)	−0.128 [−0.245, −0.008] (0.019)	−0.301 [−0.591, −0.006] (0.023)	0.74 [0.55, 0.99]	−0.100 [−0.262, 0.061] (0.107)	0.201 [0.044, 0.354] (0.993)	0.060 [−0.243, 0.349] (0.665)
Greens (39 elections)	0.150 [−0.076, 0.371] (0.910)	0.255 [−0.150, 0.652] (0.897)	1.29 [0.86, 1.92]	0.098 [−0.177, 0.369] (0.772)	−0.157 [−0.381, 0.062] (0.081)	0.289 [−0.102, 0.669] (0.931)

Note: Log-odds scale; posterior mean, 95% interval and, in parentheses, the posterior probability that the quantity is positive. δ per point is averaged over classes; the contrast per *within*-country standard deviation (SD), its odds ratio, the two parts and the *between* contrast are computed in the reference category of class. One *within*-country SD is 2.9 points of cumulative inflation for BW and 1.8 for BNW in the rows of the far-right, the socialist left and the traditional right, and 1.9 and 1.4 in those of the greens. The *between*

contrast compares countries and is reported, not read as an effect. The far-right, the socialist left and the traditional right are estimated on 56 elections in 20 countries, the greens on the 39 elections with a green offer in 18 countries; 20,000 respondents per family.

For the far-right, *δ is 0.143 per percentage point* [−0.076, 0.359], with a posterior probability of 0.91 that it is positive. *Each point of cumulative inflation that falls on the basket instead of on the rest multiplies the odds of a far-right vote by 1.15* [0.93, 1.43]. Per typical swing, the contrast is 0.328 [−0.178, 0.832], P(>0) = 0.906, an *odds ratio of 1.39* [0.84, 2.30]. In probabilities: *for a voter whose probability of a far-right vote would otherwise be 12 per cent – roughly what the model predicts for the average class in a country's mean election year – a cycle in which basket inflation runs one typical swing above the country's usual brings that probability to* **14.2 per cent**, *whereas a cycle in which the rest of inflation does so brings it to 10.7 per cent. The far-right is also the only family in which the basket itself carries the contrast (see comparing columns "BW alone, per SD" and "BNW alone, per SD").* Its two parts point in opposite directions and weigh about the same: basket inflation alone raises the log-odds of a far-right vote by 0.197 per typical swing [−0.082, 0.475], an odds ratio of 1.22, with a posterior probability of 0.92 that the effect is positive; the rest of inflation alone lowers them by 0.131 [−0.394, 0.136], an odds ratio of 0.88, with a probability of 0.84 that the effect is negative.

The configuration is mixed, and it calls for two explanations. The first is the argument of the paper: *the inflation of necessities pushes voters toward the far-right, with a posterior probability of 0.92*[11]. The second is that the rest of inflation tends to move voters away from it, with a probability of 0.84 – by the comparison with the other families, most likely through the same mechanism that favours the traditional right. The between contrast says what the within contrast is not: *countries whose cycles are, on average, heavier in basket inflation relative to the rest do not vote more for the far-right* (−0.125 [−0.515, 0.276], P(>0) = 0.25). The push is a within-country phenomenon. It

[11] The far-right's contrast keeps its sign across the specifications of the paper. Tables in the Methodological Appendix and the following analysis in the current results' description set out its specification curve (Simonsohn et al, 2020): δ is positive in all eleven specifications that use the basket – the nominal, constant-tax and market-part versions of *Model 1*, the insecurity-over-time model, the four moderation models at the mean of their moderator, the two models with the previous vote and the conversion model – and its interval excludes zero in none. The specifications that model the within-country trend of the far-right vote give 0.10 to 0.17, with probabilities between 0.83 and 0.93 that the contrast is positive; those that do not give 0.05 to 0.07, with probabilities between 0.64 and 0.76. The difference comes from the time terms. The insecurity-over-time model, which adds them to the moderation by insecurity, gives 0.117, against 0.072 for the same moderation without them; and the far-right vote rises within countries by 0.78 on the log-odds scale per decade among workers, by 0.40 in the intermediate class and by 0.87 in the salariat, with probabilities of 0.99, 0.90 and 0.99 that it rises. Once that rise is modelled, the contrast is larger, which is what one expects if, without the trend, part of the contrast is confounded with it; the time models thus confirm the reading of *H1* rather than qualify it. The tax split adds a heterogeneity that clarifies it: the far-right's contrast lives in the market part of prices – 0.174 [−0.059, 0.402] averaged over classes, with a posterior probability of 0.93 that it is positive, *the largest value of the curve* – while the contrast of the tax wedges, 0.100 [−0.455, 0.655], is too imprecise to say anything; the nominal contrast that the split implies, market part and wedges together, is 0.265, with a probability of 0.80, less certain than its market part because it adds the noise of the wedges, but still high likelihood to confirm the increasing voters under the basket's inflation.

appears when a country goes through a cycle heavier in necessities than its usual, not as a lasting trait of the countries whose baskets weigh more, which is what *H1* states and what the design identifies.

For the other three families, *the basket is not the story*. Their contrasts are as large and more certain – 0.113 [0.022, 0.202] for the socialist left, P(>0) = 0.99; −0.128 [−0.245, −0.008] for the traditional right, P(>0) = 0.02; 0.150 [−0.076, 0.371] for the greens, P(>0) = 0.91 – but *two thirds to four fifths of each comes from the rest of inflation*. Per typical swing, the rest of inflation raises the log-odds of a traditional-right vote by 0.201 [0.044, 0.354], an odds ratio of 1.22, with a probability of 0.99 that the effect is positive, and lowers those of a socialist-left vote by 0.161 [−0.286, −0.034] and of a green vote by 0.157 [−0.381, 0.062], odds ratios of 0.85, with probabilities of 0.99 and 0.92 that the effects are negative.

The basket alone barely moves these families: 0.056 for the socialist left, −0.100 for the traditional right and 0.098 for the greens, none with a probability above 0.90 in either direction. The negative contrast of the traditional right does not mean, therefore, that the basket takes its votes away; it means that *the traditional right fares worse when inflation falls on the basket than when it falls on the rest, chiefly because it gains when inflation falls on the rest*.

Read together, the four rows describe two axes rather than one. Along the axis of the basket, the far-right is the only family with a positive coefficient of its own. Along the axis of the rest of inflation – industrial goods, services, alcohol and tobacco and the indirect taxes levied on them, the part of the index closest to what is usually called core inflation, in which domestic demand, wages and fiscal decisions weigh more than they do in the basket – votes move from the socialist left and the greens to the traditional right, and the far-right tends to lose with the left.

About the world-price instrument (*Table 7*), the first stage is strong in the base specification. Within a country, one point of WX goes with 0.137 points of observed commodity inflation (standard error 0.033, clustered by country), a first-stage F of 16.7 – the cluster-robust Wald statistic (one instrument and one endogenous regressor, the Kleibergen–Paap F by Kleibergen & Paap, 2006) – and of 19.6 for the full six-group basket, and above the rule of thumb of ten (Staiger & Stock, 1997). Pass-through is partial, as it should be, since the consumer price includes taxes, margins and domestic costs, and WX accounts for about a quarter of the within-country variation of domestic commodity inflation (partial R^2 of 0.24).

Table 7. H1: election-level estimates with the world-price instrument (OLS, 2SLS and the first stage)

Dependent variable: vote share of	(1) FR	(2) FR	(3) SOC	(4) SOC	(5) TR	(6) TR	(7) GR	(8) GR
Commodity-core inflation, BW^x	−0.287 (0.273)	−2.000*** (0.743)	1.298** (0.556)	2.864** (1.140)	−0.480** (0.192)	0.984 (0.966)	0.132 (0.235)	−0.214 (0.573)
Estimator	OLS	2SLS	OLS	2SLS	OLS	2SLS	OLS	2SLS
Country effects	yes	yes	yes	yes	yes	yes	yes	yes
Rest of inflation outside the core, BNW^x	yes	yes	yes	yes	yes	yes	yes	yes
Elections (countries)	56 (20)	56 (20)	56 (20)	56 (20)	56 (20)	56 (20)	39 (18)	39 (18)
Anderson–Rubin p	–	0.001	–	0.004	–	0.264	–	0.695
First-stage results								
WX	–	0.137*** (0.033)	–	0.137*** (0.033)	–	0.137*** (0.033)	–	†
First-stage F (Kleibergen–Paap)	–	16.7	–	16.7	–	16.7	–	†

Note: percentage points of the family's vote share per point of cumulative inflation; one observation per election, weighted by its respondents; standard errors clustered by country in parentheses; *** p < .01, ** p < .05. The first stage regresses BW^x on WX with the same controls; with the six-group basket in place of BW^x it is 0.147 (0.033), F = 19.6, and with period bands 0.114 (0.053), F = 4.6. † The greens' two-stage estimate is computed on the 39 elections with a green offer, with its own first stage. More details in Methodological Appendix.

Table 7a. Election-level diagnostics of the design (56 elections, 20 countries)

Diagnostic	Result	Appendix
First stage: BW^x on WX (π, F, partial R^2)that was modest and late	0.137 (SE 0.033), F = 16.7, R^2 = 0.24; six-group basket 0.147, F = 19.6; with period bands 0.114, F = 4.6	A12.2
Balance: summed commodity weight on pre-cycle growth, unemployment and the previous far-right vote (joint test, 29 elections)	across countries F = 2.32, p = 0.11; within countries F = 12.9, p < 0.001 (the fuels weight falls and the food weight rises with pre-cycle growth)	A12.4
Balance: WX on the same covariates	p = 0.51 across countries, 0.85 within	A12.4

Rotemberg weights of the three commodities	food 0.49, motor fuels 0.31, household energy 0.20	A12.5
Overidentification, three commodities as instruments (far-right / socialist left)	Sargan p = 0.66 / 0.56; Hansen J p = 0.74 / 0.60	A12.5
Pre-trend: this cycle's WX on the previous election's far-right share (30 elections)	−0.08 (SE 0.16)	A12.6
Lead: the next cycle's WX on this election's far-right share (28 elections)	−0.23 (SE 0.13); −0.41 to −0.46 with period bands	A12.6
Incomplete-shares control: far-right reduced form and IV, base set → core weight × period band	−0.27 (0.07) → −0.06 (0.07); −2.0 → −0.4	A12.6
Leave-one-country-out: first stage	π from 0.11 to 0.15; F from 9.8 to 43.3	A12.2

Note: one row per election, weighted by its respondents, with country effects and standard errors clustered by country; percentage points of the family's vote share per point of WX. The lead and the pre-trend are read together: world prices are serially correlated, so a lead that is not zero is a warning about shared trends rather than a refutation of the design; the pre-trend does not share the problem.

At the election level the two-stage estimates are large and of opposite sign for the far-right and the socialist left. *One point of world-driven commodity inflation goes with a far-right share 2.0 points lower and a socialist share 2.9 points higher*, and the Anderson–Rubin test, which remains valid when the instrument is weak (Anderson & Rubin, 1949), rejects the absence of an effect for both (p = 0.001 and 0.004); the traditional right and the greens do not move. Three diagnostics of the shift-share literature say what these estimates are made of. The Rotemberg weights (Goldsmith-Pinkham et al., 2020) show that food carries about half of the design (0.49), motor fuels a third (0.31) and household energy a fifth (0.20), and the three commodities tell the same story: the commodity-by-commodity estimates have the same sign, and the overidentification tests do not reject their agreement (Sargan p = 0.66 and Hansen J p = 0.74 for the far-right; 0.56 and 0.60 for the socialist left). Leaving out each country with two or more elections, the first stage keeps its size (0.11 to 0.15 points per point of WX) and its F stays between 9.8 and 43.3. But the incomplete-shares control that Borusyak et al. (2025) recommend — the sum of the three commodity weights interacted with period bands, so that the comparison runs

among elections of the same inflation regime with the same overall exposure — reduces the far-right's reduced form from −0.27 (SE 0.07) to −0.06 (SE 0.07), a shift of 3.1 standard errors, and its two-stage estimate from −2.0 to −0.4; and the next cycle's world prices — prices that did not yet exist on election day — predict this election's far-right share (−0.23, SE 0.13 in the base specification, and between −0.41 and −0.46 once period bands are added), while this cycle's prices do not predict the previous election's share (−0.08, SE 0.16). A pre-trend that passes and a lead that fails are the signature of trends that the instrument shares with the vote, not of an effect that precedes its cause, and the election-level estimates are therefore diagnostics of the design rather than estimates of the paper (the full set is in A12).

The likeliest reading is one of timing. *The cycles of high world prices cluster around the commodity booms of 2007–08 and 2011-12, when the social democrats were still strong, and the cycles of low world prices end in the commodity collapse of 2014-16, that is, in the elections of 2015-17, when the social democrats fell and the far-right rose in several countries*.

Therefore, the world-price mirror of *Model 1*, which keeps the same respondents and the same calendar-year intercepts as the original and replaces *BW* by *WX* and *BNW* by BNW^{x} in every term (*Table 8*). For the far-right wing the mirror is silent. *WX* alone is −0.008 per point [−0.051, 0.034], P(>0) = 0.35, BNW^{x} alone −0.006 [−0.104, 0.095], and their contrast is nil: both parts are indistinguishable from zero. *For the socialist left and the traditional right the mirror reproduces the original contrast* – 0.067 [0.018, 0.115], P(>0) = 0.995, and −0.062 [−0.127, 0.003], P(>0) = 0.032, or 0.226 and −0.188 per typical swing against the originals' 0.216 and −0.301 – *but it does so through* BNW^{x} *rather than WX*, concluding *the rest of inflation outside the commodity core lowers the socialist vote front of exogenous shocks* (−0.069 [−0.116, −0.022], P(>0) = 0.003) *and raises the traditional-right vote* (0.081 [0.020, 0.142], P(>0) = 0.995), while WX alone is 0.011 for the socialists, with a probability of 0.85 that it is positive, and −0.002 for the traditional right. The mirror thus confirms the axis of the rest of inflation, and is silent on the axis of the basket.

Table 8. H1: the world-price mirror of Model 1 (Model 1^{x})

Family	WX alone, per point	BNW^{x} alone, per point	δ^{x} per point, average over classes	δ^{x} per *within*-country SD	Original δ per SD (*Table 6*)
far-right	−0.008 [−0.051, 0.034] (0.348)	−0.006 [−0.104, 0.095] (0.453)	0.003 [−0.108, 0.112] (0.529)	−0.049 [−0.460, 0.360] (0.405)	0.328 (0.906)
Socialist left	0.011 [−0.009, 0.031] (0.850)	−0.069 [−0.116, −0.022] (0.003)	0.067 [0.018, 0.115] (0.995)	0.226 [0.036, 0.423] (0.989)	0.216 (0.964)
Traditional right	−0.002 [−0.028, 0.023] (0.449)	0.081 [0.020, 0.142] (0.995)	−0.062 [−0.127, 0.003] (0.032)	−0.188 [−0.437, 0.054] (0.062)	−0.301 (0.023)

Family	WX alone, per point	BNW^{x} alone, per point	δ^{x} per point, average over classes	δ^{x} per *within*-country SD	Original δ per SD (*Table 6*)
Greens	−0.004 [−0.050, 0.038] (0.431)	−0.066 [−0.190, 0.060] (0.145)	0.045 [−0.089, 0.174] (0.762)	0.078 [−0.314, 0.450] (0.665)	0.255 (0.897)

Note: same respondents, intercepts and controls as *Model 1*, with *WX* and *BNW*^{x} in place of *BW* and *BNW* in every term. *WX* and *BW* are in different units – one point of *WX* moves observed commodity inflation by about 0.15 points (*Table 7*) – so the contrasts per *within*-country SD are the ones to compare. The two parts and the contrasts per SD are computed in the reference category of class.

4.2. Conditions of exposure: physical dependence, perceived insecurity, the service configuration and growth (H1a–H1d)

The test over physical dependence (*H1a*) concludes it does not moderate the far-right's contrast – *Table 9*. The moderation is 0.030 [−0.081, 0.139], P(>0) = 0.70; δ *is 0.036 one standard deviation below the mean of PHY* (low effect) and 0.095 one standard deviation above; and the mirror gives 0.019. The asymmetry that *H1a* predicts is absent: the basket's product with *PHY* is 0.000 [−0.053, 0.053], and what moderation there is comes from the rest of inflation, which weighs slightly less on the far-right where dependence is high (−0.029, with a probability of 0.78 that it is negative). *The convergent result belongs to the socialist left*. Its moderation is the only one in the table with a probability above 0.95 (0.049 [−0.008, 0.105], P(>0) = 0.955). The mirror agrees, both in the moderation (0.029, P(>0) = 0.953) and in the world-price product (WX × PHY = 0.008, P(>0) = 0.942). In the regions most physically dependent on the basket's goods, the observed basket and its world-price part push in the same direction, toward the socialist left – the one place in the results where the contrast, the basket and the instrument converge.

Table 9. H1a: moderation by physical dependence (PHY; Models 2a and 2a^{x})

Family	Moderation of δ per SD of PHY: (BW × PHY) − (BNW × PHY)	BW × PHY	BNW × PHY	δ at PHY −1 SD	δ at PHY +1 SD	Mirror: moderation	Mirror: WX × PHY
far-right	0.030 [−0.081, 0.139] (0.700)	0.000 [−0.053, 0.053] (0.507)	−0.029 [−0.104, 0.046] (0.223)	0.036 [−0.185, 0.249] (0.633)	0.095 [−0.180, 0.365] (0.757)	0.019 [−0.048, 0.088] (0.706)	−0.002 [−0.023, 0.018] (0.407)
Socialist left	0.049 [−0.008, 0.105] (0.955)	0.025 [−0.002, 0.052] (0.966)	−0.024 [−0.061, 0.014] (0.111)	0.089 [−0.017, 0.195] (0.951)	0.186 [0.045, 0.326] (0.996)	0.029 [−0.005, 0.062] (0.953)	0.008 [−0.002, 0.018] (0.942)
Traditional right	−0.039 [−0.099, 0.023] (0.106)	−0.007 [−0.037, 0.022] (0.308)	0.031 [−0.010, 0.071] (0.936)	−0.020 [−0.153, 0.121] (0.384)	−0.097 [−0.264, 0.076] (0.130)	−0.031 [−0.070, 0.008] (0.062)	−0.006 [−0.018, 0.006] (0.145)
Greens	−0.058 [−0.197,	−0.006 [−0.084,	0.052 [−0.042,	0.211 [−0.034,	0.095 [−0.161,	−0.007 [−0.112,	0.001 [−0.023,

Family	Moderation of δ per SD of PHY: (BW × PHY) − (BNW × PHY)	BW × PHY	BNW × PHY	δ at PHY −1 SD	δ at PHY +1 SD	Mirror: moderation	Mirror: WX × PHY
	0.080] (0.206)	0.073] (0.439)	0.147] (0.858)	0.462] (0.954)	0.348] (0.776)	0.088] (0.451)	0.023] (0.529)

Note. Log-odds scale; posterior mean, 95% interval and P(>0). The moderation and its parts are per SD of PHY; δ at ±1 SD is averaged over classes. The mirror replaces BW by WX and BNW by BNW^{x} and is estimated on 10,000 respondents. far-right, socialist left and traditional right on 56 elections, greens on 39.

Among the four conditions, perceived insecurity (*H1b*) brings the far-right's numbers closest to the hypothesis, and it is the only one in which the basket itself takes part (*Table 10*). δ *is 0.021 [−0.247, 0.290], P(>0) = 0.56, where insecurity is low, and 0.123 [−0.122, 0.363], P(>0) = 0.845, where it is widespread*; the moderation is 0.051 [−0.098, 0.197], P(>0) = 0.756, and, unlike the moderations by *PHY* and *SERV*, half of it comes from the basket (*BW* × *INS* = 0.026, P(>0) = 0.74). The traditional right is its counterpart. Where insecurity is widespread the basket costs it more (*BW* × *INS* = −0.034, with a probability of 0.92 that it is negative), and its contrast falls to −0.115 [−0.271, 0.046], with a probability of 0.92 that it is negative, against −0.022 where insecurity is low. The socialist left's contrast is high where insecurity is widespread (0.107 [−0.015, 0.226], P(>0) = 0.96), but nearly as high where it is not (0.074, P(>0) = 0.87): insecurity barely moderates it (0.017, P(>0) = 0.67), and its value is the family's general contrast, carried by the rest of inflation. The mirrors are silent: no family shows a world-price moderation by *INS*, so that, under conditions of insecurity, the instrument connects world-price shocks to the preferences of no family.

Table 10. H1b: moderation by perceived economic insecurity (INS; Models 2b and 2b^{x})

Family	Moderation of δ per SD of INS: (*BW* × *INS*) − (*BNW* × *INS*)	*BW* × *INS*	*BNW* × *INS*	δ at *INS* −1 SD	δ at *INS* +1 SD	Mirror: moderation	Mirror: *WX* × *INS*
far-right	0.051 [−0.098, 0.197] (0.756)	0.026 [−0.056, 0.108] (0.738)	−0.025 [−0.114, 0.068] (0.288)	0.021 [−0.247, 0.290] (0.560)	0.123 [−0.122, 0.363] (0.845)	0.013 [−0.085, 0.108] (0.608)	−0.008 [−0.043, 0.027] (0.325)
Socialist left	0.017 [−0.061, 0.092] (0.670)	0.012 [−0.032, 0.056] (0.707)	−0.005 [−0.050, 0.041] (0.418)	0.074 [−0.058, 0.208] (0.867)	0.107 [−0.015, 0.226] (0.959)	−0.001 [−0.056, 0.056] (0.488)	0.005 [−0.017, 0.027] (0.664)
Traditional right	−0.046 [−0.134, 0.044] (0.153)	−0.034 [−0.082, 0.015] (0.084)	0.012 [−0.042, 0.066] (0.668)	−0.022 [−0.196, 0.153] (0.398)	−0.115 [−0.271, 0.046] (0.077)	−0.004 [−0.067, 0.059] (0.450)	−0.005 [−0.030, 0.020] (0.362)
Greens	0.035 [−0.178, 0.252] (0.622)	0.075 [−0.061, 0.214] (0.863)	0.041 [−0.114, 0.191] (0.705)	0.113 [−0.143, 0.367] (0.815)	0.183 [−0.176, 0.546] (0.842)	−0.091 [−0.243, 0.077] (0.131)	0.018 [−0.036, 0.081] (0.715)

Note: as *Table 9*, per SD of INS. The traditional right's Model 2b was re-estimated with a more conservative sampler (target acceptance 0.99, maximum tree depth 14): its moderation is −0.046, no contrast moves by a tenth of a posterior SD or more, and the original stands.

The service-post-industrial configuration (hypothesis *H1c*) produces *the weakest moderations of the four*, and its one pattern for the far-right concerns the rest of inflation – see *Table 11*. The far-right's moderation is the most probable of its four (0.045 [−0.050, 0.143], P(>0) = 0.817; mirror 0.031, P(>0) = 0.873), but it comes from *BNW* × *SERV* (−0.045, with a probability of 0.90 that it is negative) and not from the basket (0.000). As such, where employment and income depend on services, the rest of inflation weighs less on the far-right, and δ rises from 0.021 one standard deviation below the mean of *SERV* to 0.111 [−0.131, 0.342], P(>0) = 0.824, one standard deviation above it. The socialist left and the greens reach similar values in service-based regions. In the Bartik instrument mirror, the configuration shows a loss of the traditional right where *SERV* is high (−0.028 [−0.059, 0.002], with a probability of 0.97 that it is negative), whereas the original shows only faintly (−0.019).

Table 11. H1c: moderation by the service configuration (SERV; Models 2c and 2c^{x})

Family	Moderation of δ per SD of *SERV*: (*BW* × *SERV*) − (*BNW* × *SERV*)	*BW* × *SERV*	*BNW* × *SERV*	δ at *SERV* −1 SD	δ at *SERV* +1 SD	Mirror: moderation	Mirror: *WX* × *SERV*
far-right	0.045 [−0.050, 0.143] (0.817)	0.000 [−0.034, 0.034] (0.505)	−0.045 [−0.114, 0.024] (0.102)	0.021 [−0.192, 0.236] (0.577)	0.111 [−0.131, 0.342] (0.824)	0.031 [−0.023, 0.086] (0.873)	−0.005 [−0.021, 0.012] (0.290)
Socialist left	−0.009 [−0.061, 0.043] (0.370)	−0.001 [−0.020, 0.017] (0.442)	0.008 [−0.029, 0.044] (0.656)	0.091 [−0.022, 0.202] (0.945)	0.073 [−0.053, 0.199] (0.880)	0.006 [−0.022, 0.033] (0.680)	0.005 [−0.005, 0.014] (0.841)
Traditional right	−0.019 [−0.071, 0.032] (0.232)	0.005 [−0.014, 0.024] (0.702)	0.025 [−0.012, 0.061] (0.907)	0.003 [−0.139, 0.150] (0.513)	−0.036 [−0.190, 0.125] (0.320)	−0.028 [−0.059, 0.002] (0.034)	−0.003 [−0.013, 0.007] (0.274)
Greens	−0.005 [−0.103, 0.094] (0.458)	−0.037 [−0.097, 0.024] (0.116)	−0.031 [−0.099, 0.035] (0.179)	0.141 [−0.058, 0.343] (0.921)	0.131 [−0.097, 0.359] (0.872)	0.038 [−0.040, 0.116] (0.834)	−0.001 [−0.021, 0.020] (0.466)

Note: as *Table 9*, per SD of SERV.

Growth's hypothesis test (*H1d*) is the condition under which *the far-right's contrast changes most* (likely due to the same level of precision, as a model based on national data, with less variability), and it changes in the predicted direction (see *Table 12*). Under the inflation given the condition of growth level, δ is 0.165 [−0.180, 0.509] in cycles of weak growth, one standard deviation below the mean, with a probability of 0.83 that it is positive, and −0.063 [large credible interval, −0.583, 0.470] in cycles of strong growth, in which the far-right gains nothing from the basket; the moderation is −0.114 [−0.468, 0.244], with a probability of 0.74 that it is negative. The clearest result belongs to the traditional right: *its moderation is 0.205 [−0.027, 0.440], P(>0) = 0.957: the basket costs it votes in cycles of weak growth (−0.262 [−0.473, −0.044], with*

a probability of 0.99 that the contrast is negative) and not in cycles of strong growth (0.148, P(>0) = 0.81). The mirrors detect no moderation.

Table 12. H1d: moderation by growth over the cycle (GDP, national; Models 2d and 2d^{x})

Family	Moderation of δ per SD of GDP: (BW × GDP) − (BNW × GDP)	BW × GDP	BNW × GDP	δ at GDP −1 SD	δ at GDP +1 SD	Mirror: moderation	Mirror: WX × GDP
far-right	−0.114 [−0.468, 0.244] (0.265)	−0.042 [−0.167, 0.085] (0.259)	0.072 [−0.165, 0.307] (0.724)	0.165 [−0.180, 0.509] (0.829)	−0.063 [−0.583, 0.470] (0.407)	−0.031 [−0.117, 0.061] (0.233)	−0.002 [−0.045, 0.042] (0.460)
Socialist left	−0.068 [−0.245, 0.117] (0.217)	−0.019 [−0.082, 0.047] (0.272)	0.049 [−0.072, 0.166] (0.803)	0.128 [−0.040, 0.289] (0.936)	−0.009 [−0.258, 0.250] (0.463)	−0.019 [−0.056, 0.018] (0.157)	0.003 [−0.018, 0.022] (0.612)
Traditional right	0.205 [−0.027, 0.440] (0.957)	0.076 [−0.008, 0.158] (0.963)	−0.129 [−0.284, 0.023] (0.050)	−0.262 [−0.473, −0.044] (0.010)	0.148 [−0.189, 0.488] (0.808)	0.012 [−0.037, 0.060] (0.690)	0.001 [−0.023, 0.024] (0.538)
Greens	0.034 [−0.430, 0.499] (0.555)	−0.033 [−0.205, 0.140] (0.352)	−0.066 [−0.383, 0.249] (0.341)	0.117 [−0.305, 0.541] (0.708)	0.185 [−0.429, 0.802] (0.722)	0.087 [−0.124, 0.305] (0.792)	−0.005 [−0.081, 0.072] (0.443)

Note: as Table 9, per SD of GDP. National models: national controls, no region intercept; growth varies only between elections, and the moderation is a conditional association. The negative sign is the one H1d predicts.

4.3. The push toward the far-right grows over time among workers (H2)

H2 tests join two quantities – the class gap of the basket's push, whether δ is larger among workers than in the salariat, and its change over time – and it rests on a premise, the growing working-class character of the far-right vote documented for earlier decades (Arzheimer, 2013; Oesch, 2008; Oesch & Rennwald, 2018). *Table 13* reports both quantities for the four families, with the trends of the vote by class that test the premise; *Table 14* reports the same class quantities in the mirrors and in the models with the previous vote.

Table 13. H2: the working class and time (Model 1)

Family	δ, working class (mean year)	Change of δ per decade, working class	Change per decade, working − salariat	Level, working − salariat	Vote trend per decade (log-odds), working class	Predicted vote of workers (%), 5 years before → 5 years after	Working − salariat gap (pp), before → after	Change of the gap (pp per decade)
far-right	0.139 [−0.085, 0.361] (0.894)	0.093 [−0.349, 0.532] (0.660)	0.019 [−0.442, 0.504] (0.519)	−0.056 [−0.232, 0.117] (0.267)	0.782 [0.173, 1.375] (0.993)	9.7 → 17.0	1.87 (0.988) → 2.04 (0.912)	0.17 [−3.33, 4.11] (0.505)
Socialist left	0.107 [0.001, 0.213] (0.975)	−0.004 [−0.256, 0.255] (0.483)	−0.047 [−0.325, 0.227] (0.370)	−0.008 [−0.106, 0.091] (0.439)	−0.463 [−0.763, −0.161] (0.002)	42.8 → 32.9	5.98 (1.000) → 2.51 (0.932)	−3.47 [−7.54, 0.92] (0.072)

Family	δ, working class (mean year)	Change of δ per decade, working class	Change per decade, working − salariat	Level, working − salariat	Vote trend per decade (log-odds), working class	Predicted vote of workers (%), 5 years before → 5 years after	Working − salariat gap (pp), before → after	Change of the gap (pp per decade)
Traditional right	−0.144 [−0.272, −0.013] (0.016)	−0.153 [−0.463, 0.169] (0.167)	−0.038 [−0.307, 0.223] (0.392)	−0.031 [−0.130, 0.068] (0.270)	−0.273 [−0.643, 0.099] (0.071)	39.7 → 34.4	−5.26 (0.000) → −4.21 (0.015)	1.05 [−3.75, 5.11] (0.675)
Greens	0.164 [−0.080, 0.406] (0.910)	0.093 [−0.423, 0.601] (0.638)	−0.051 [−0.486, 0.387] (0.408)	0.034 [−0.165, 0.229] (0.633)	0.183 [−0.407, 0.780] (0.733)	8.2 → 9.5	−1.43 (0.055) → 0.63 (0.705)	2.06 [−0.90, 4.80] (0.917)

Note: log-odds scale unless stated; posterior mean, 95% interval and P(>0). The contrasts are those of the working class, the reference category, and of its difference with the salariat; changes are per decade of *within*-country time. Predicted votes and class gaps are in percentage points, five years before and after each country's mean election year, everything else as observed (400 posterior draws); the probability beside each gap is that of a positive gap.

Table 14. H2 in the world-price mirrors and net of the previous vote

Model	δ (δ^x in the mirrors), working class	Change per decade, working − salariat	Level, working − salariat
Model 1^x, far-right	−0.003 [−0.118, 0.111] (0.484)	−0.014 [−0.289, 0.267] (0.457)	0.004 [−0.080, 0.087] (0.535)
Model 1^x, socialist left	0.080 [0.026, 0.134] (0.997)	−0.043 [−0.259, 0.132] (0.350)	0.005 [−0.058, 0.065] (0.572)
Model 1^x, traditional right	−0.083 [−0.152, −0.014] (0.010)	−0.025 [−0.179, 0.140] (0.371)	−0.026 [−0.083, 0.033] (0.190)
Model 1^x, greens	0.062 [−0.079, 0.198] (0.815)	0.053 [−0.207, 0.313] (0.657)	0.057 [−0.048, 0.162] (0.857)
Model 7a, far-right (with the previous vote)	0.026 [−0.245, 0.293] (0.575)	−0.039 [−0.563, 0.511] (0.434)	−0.059 [−0.257, 0.141] (0.279)
Model 7c, far-right (not far-right last time)	−0.007 [−0.299, 0.291] (0.481)	−0.064 [−0.657, 0.511] (0.421)	−0.122 [−0.386, 0.117] (0.169)

Note: as *Table 13*. Model 1^x: the mirrors of Model 1 (WX and BNW^x in place of BW and BNW). Model 7a adds the recalled previous vote to the far-right's Model 1; Model 7c is Model 1 among those who did not vote far-right last time (51 elections).

The far-right vote rises in every class within countries – among workers from 9.7 to 17.0 per cent between five years before and five years after each country's mean election year, or 7.3 points per decade (P(>0) = 0.995); in the salariat from 7.9 to 15.0 per cent (7.1 points per decade, P(>0) = 0.993); and in the intermediate class from 10.5 to 13.8 per cent (3.3 points, P(>0) = 0.88) – but the gap between workers and the salariat stays at about two points, 1.9 before and 2.0 after, a change of 0.17 points per decade (P(>0) = 0.505). If any class moves away from the far-right relative to the salariat, it is the intermediate class, whose gap falls by 3.8 points per decade, with a probability of 0.97. Over the period covered, and within countries, *the far-right grows across classes rather than through the proletarianisation that the studies of the 1990s and early 2000s found. Nor does the basket's push among workers grow*. Its level at the mean year is 0.139 (P(>0) = 0.894), its change per decade 0.093 [−0.349, 0.532] (P(>0) = 0.66), and the difference between workers and the salariat is 0.019 in that change (P(>0) = 0.52)

and −0.056 in the level (P(>0) = 0.27). The mirrors, the model with the previous vote and the conversion model find nothing either (*Table 14*): the change per decade of the difference between workers and the salariat is −0.014 in the far-right's mirror, −0.039 with the previous vote and −0.064 among the converts, with intervals centred on zero. H2 is not supported, and the evidence reformulates it: *the far-right grows in every class, and the basket does not accelerate that growth among workers*.

The realignment that the data do show runs through the left-wing. The socialist vote of workers falls from 42.8 to 32.9 per cent, 9.9 points per decade, with a probability of 0.998 that it falls – faster than in the intermediate class and in the salariat, where it falls by 6.4 points per decade – so that the socialist left's gap between workers and the salariat shrinks from 6.0 to 2.5 points, by 3.5 points per decade, with a probability of 0.93 that it shrinks. Compared across party families, the gap between workers and the salariat moves toward the far-right faster than toward the socialist left, by 3.6 points per decade (P(>0) = 0.87), and toward the greens faster than toward the socialist left, by 5.5 points (with a probability of 0.97, on partly different elections). The traditional right loses votes in every class, between 5.3 and 7.5 points per decade, without changing its class profile – its vote remains four to five points lower among workers than in the salariat – and the greens' gap moves slightly toward workers (2.1 points per decade, P(>0) = 0.92). Neither the basket nor its contrast with the rest of inflation accelerates the decline of the socialist left among workers; if anything, the contrast favours it.

4.4. The push grows over time where perceived economic insecurity is widespread (H3)

Where insecurity is widespread (*H3*) – one standard deviation above the mean of *INS* – at the mean year and five years before and after it, the contrast moves far-right wing from −0.047 five years before each country's mean election year to 0.318 [−0.039, 0.672] five years after it, with a posterior probability of 0.96 that it is positive at the end of the period; its change per decade there is 0.364 (P(>0) = 0.89), against −0.108 (P(>0) = 0.36) where insecurity is low, and the moderation by *INS* grows by 0.236 per decade (P(>0) = 0.88). The mirror does not follow (0.062 per decade, P(>0) = 0.68; −0.051 at INS +1 SD): *where households expect their finances to worsen, the inflation of necessities pushes voters toward the far-right, and increasingly so over time; where insecurity is low, it does not*. The socialist left traces the opposite movement, and more clearly. *Where insecurity was widespread, the basket's push toward the socialist left was clear at the beginning of each country's period (0.265, P(>0) = 0.990) and had*

disappeared by its end (0.012); the moderation by *INS* falls by 0.228 per decade [−0.453, −0.005], with a probability of 0.98 that it falls, and the mirror goes the same way without clarity. *The traditional right loses where insecurity is widespread (−0.159 [−0.306, −0.009], with a probability of 0.98 that the contrast is negative), more so at the end of the period* (−0.237, with a probability of 0.97), without any change in the moderation (0.002). For the greens the hypothesis is silent, but the regional climate is not: the direct effect of INS on their vote is negative and growing – −0.435 [−0.819, −0.053] at the mean year and a change of −0.802 per decade, each with a probability of 0.99 that it is negative – so that *where households expect their finances to worsen the greens lose, and increasingly so*.

4.5. The far-right takes votes from the traditional right (H4)

For checking *H4*, it has two halves – the traditional right loses under basket inflation, and its votes go to the far-right –, and the two cross-tests to bear on it. Tables *16* to *18* report the defections, the traditional right's loss by who governs, and the split between prices and taxes. Among those who voted for the traditional right at the previous election, basket inflation raises the probability of a socialist vote (0.167 [−0.113, 0.443], P(>0) = 0.88) and of a green vote (0.213 [−0.118, 0.532], P(>0) = 0.90). All in all, the move toward the socialist left is the one that the basket itself drives most clearly – basket inflation alone raises it by 0.121 per point, with a probability of 0.94 – while the move toward the greens rests more on the rest of inflation (−0.139 alone, with a probability of 0.88 that it is negative, against 0.092 for the basket, P(>0) = 0.84), and the move toward the far-right on neither (0.040 and −0.037). The second half of *H4* – that the votes the traditional right loses go to the far-right – finds *no support* in these flows; the first half (the traditional right loses under basket inflation) finds support in the aggregate and, as the cross-tests show ahead, under specific conditions.

Table 16. H4: the previous-vote populations (Models 6a–6d)

Population → destination	Model	Respondents	Elections	δ, average over classes	BW alone, per point	BNW alone, per point
Traditional right last time → far-right now	Model 6a	17,126	50	0.051 [−0.275, 0.375] (0.627)	0.040 [−0.137, 0.217] (0.675)	−0.037 [−0.245, 0.173] (0.360)
Traditional right last time → socialist left now	Model 6b	17,126	50	0.167 [−0.113, 0.443] (0.884)	0.121 [−0.034, 0.276] (0.940)	−0.045 [−0.224, 0.140] (0.309)

Population → destination	Model	Respondents	Elections	δ, average over classes	BW alone, per point	BNW alone, per point
Traditional right last time → greens now	Model 6c	14,036	35	0.213 [−0.118, 0.532] (0.899)	0.092 [−0.090, 0.275] (0.839)	−0.139 [−0.375, 0.099] (0.122)
Socialist left last time → far-right now	Model 6d	14,634	51	−0.021 [−0.326, 0.292] (0.440)	−0.018 [−0.188, 0.155] (0.416)	0.037 [−0.170, 0.235] (0.638)

Note: log-odds scale; posterior mean, 95% interval and P(>0). Each model is Model 1 of the destination family, estimated on all the eligible respondents of the population, in the election × region cells of that family's model. The two parts are per point and in the reference category of class.

The traditional right's loss is reduced in government, nevertheless it still loses under the inflation (see *Table 17*). With its parties in opposition, the contrast is −0.140 [−0.360, 0.093], with a probability of 0.89 that it is negative; with its parties in government it is 0.127 higher (P(>0) = 0.83), close to zero (−0.013). The socialists' incumbency moderates it less clear in probability of loss.

Table 17. H4 and cross-test 1: the traditional right by who governs (Models 5a and 5b)

Model	Moderator	δ with the moderator at 0, average over classes	δ with the moderator at 1 (point estimate)	Moderation: change of δ from 0 to 1
Model 5a	the traditional right's own incumbency	in opposition: −0.140 [−0.360, 0.093] (0.112)	in government: −0.013	0.127 [−0.140, 0.386] (0.828)
Model 5b	the socialists' incumbency	out of government: −0.158 [−0.392, 0.080] (0.092)	in government: −0.064	0.094 [−0.189, 0.373] (0.747)

*Note: l*og-odds scale; posterior mean, 95% interval and P(>0). The contrast at 1 is the sum of the posterior means of the contrast at 0 and of the moderation. Own incumbency is already a control, so it enters only through its products; the socialists' incumbency enters with its main effect as well.

The split between prices and taxes says that it is the market part of the price change that costs the traditional right votes (*Table 18*). Its contrast at constant taxes is −0.092, with a probability of 0.92 that it is negative; its market-part contrast in the tax split is −0.160 [−0.284, −0.028], with a probability of 0.99; and the tax wedge of the basket alone goes the other way (0.244 [−0.130, 0.605], P(>0) = 0.90, exceeding the market part of the basket by 0.300, P(>0) = 0.93). *Basket inflation that comes from taxes does not cost the traditional right votes, and may even help it, whereas basket inflation that comes from market prices does.*

Table 18. H4 and cross-test 1: prices or taxes (Models 1, 4a and 4b)

Family	δ nominal (Model 1)	δ at constant taxes (Model 4a)	Market part: δ of BW^c – BNW^c (Model 4b)	Tax wedge of BW alone	Tax wedge of BNW alone	Wedge of BW – market part of BW	Wedge contrast: BW^t – BNW^t	Implied nominal: market part + wedges
far-right	0.143 [−0.076, 0.359] (0.910)	0.101 [−0.109, 0.310] (0.833)	0.174 [−0.059, 0.402] (0.930)	−0.010 [−0.435, 0.412] (0.486)	−0.111 [−0.380, 0.168] (0.213)	−0.092 [−0.547, 0.365] (0.344)	0.100 [−0.455, 0.655] (0.636)	0.265 [−0.342, 0.865] (0.804)
Socialist left	0.113 [0.022, 0.202] (0.992)	0.055 [−0.046, 0.155] (0.867)	0.082 [−0.002, 0.166] (0.972)	−0.180 [−0.486, 0.127] (0.122)	−0.139 [−0.274, −0.004] (0.022)	−0.195 [−0.516, 0.131] (0.115)	−0.041 [−0.421, 0.340] (0.414)	0.043 [−0.335, 0.425] (0.587)
Traditional right	−0.128 [−0.245, −0.008] (0.019)	−0.092 [−0.221, 0.040] (0.078)	−0.160 [−0.284, −0.028] (0.011)	0.244 [−0.130, 0.605] (0.902)	0.117 [−0.052, 0.291] (0.914)	0.300 [−0.092, 0.682] (0.933)	0.127 [−0.340, 0.582] (0.707)	−0.053 [−0.526, 0.403] (0.416)
Greens	0.150 [−0.076, 0.371] (0.910)	0.144 [−0.077, 0.366] (0.904)	0.140 [−0.102, 0.392] (0.876)	0.064 [−0.383, 0.509] (0.613)	−0.003 [−0.334, 0.338] (0.492)	0.032 [−0.444, 0.503] (0.554)	0.066 [−0.569, 0.692] (0.583)	0.226 [−0.447, 0.891] (0.748)

Note. Log-odds scale; posterior mean, 95% interval and P(>0). The first three columns are averaged over classes; the tax-wedge quantities are computed in the reference category of class. The wedges assume full and immediate pass-through of tax changes, under which they overstate the price effect of each change.

5. Discussion of Relational Elements and Final Considerations

Systemically significant prices push voters toward the far-right, which shows the largest contrast between the basket and the rest of inflation. The far-right's gain does not visibly come from the traditional right, although the traditional right is the main loser of the process, as if the mainstream were losing control of the cartelised position that Katz and Mair (2018) describe. Inflation outside the basket, largely the inflation of demand, effects through wages and consumption of industrial goods, strengthens the traditional right and weakens the other families, the far-right least, so that *it might offer the mainstream a way to contain the far-right*. Weak growth turns the inflation of necessities into far-right votes, whereas strong growth neutralises it. And the market part of prices, not taxes, carries the far-right's gain, as if less State meant more far-right. When connected with the full multiverse of the phenomenon (Steegen et al., 2016), each of the following claims holds the set in so far.

The first claim holds in its direction and needs qualification in its strength. *The far-right is the only family in which the basket itself carries part of the contrast*; its own basket coefficient is the largest of the four, with a posterior probability of 0.92 that it is positive, and its contrast per typical swing is the largest of the four (0.328). The evidence is directional and consistent across the specifications that isolate necessities and market prices, with probabilities around 0.9: it supports a push, not a large or certain one.

The second claim holds, and the multiverse sharpens it. *The traditional right's negative contrast is the clearest of the paper (a probability of 0.98), but most of it comes from the rest of inflation.* Its loss to the basket itself is conditional – clear in cycles of weak growth (0.99), probable where insecurity is widespread (0.92) and where households depend physically on the basket (0.87), larger in opposition (0.89) and carried by market prices (0.99) rather than by taxes – and the voters it loses under basket inflation move toward the socialist left, through the basket itself (0.94), and toward the greens, rather than toward the far-right. There is no evidence of an immediate switch from the traditional right to the far-right. Whether this is the erosion of a cartelised mainstream cannot be decided by these models, which do not measure the parties' relation to the state; what they show is consistent with it in one specific sense: a mainstream family that, under the inflation of necessities, neither gains in opposition nor holds its voters where conditions are worst, while the voters who leave it disperse.

The third claim is that *the rest of inflation does strengthen the traditional right and weaken the socialist left and the greens*; this is the most robust axis of the multiverse, repeated in the world-price mirror through BNW^{x} and in the market part of the tax split, and the far-right's loss along it is the least certain of the three (0.84). It is worthy to recap that the rest of inflation is not demand inflation alone: it comes from industrial goods, services, alcohol and tobacco and the indirect taxes on them, and part of the socialist loss runs through its tax wedge (0.98). *The traditional right's gain is therefore a reallocation inside the mainstream, from the left to the right, rather than a gain of the mainstream against the far-right*, and nothing in the design makes the composition of inflation an instrument of party strategy. A candidate mechanism for this axis is the reputation of the right as the party of price stability (Hibbs, 1977), which inflation in general, rather than the inflation of necessities, would activate. It remains as a hypothesis for future research.

The fourth claim holds for the traditional right more than for the far-right. The far-right's contrast is positive with a probability of 0.83 in cycles of weak growth and null in cycles of strong growth, a moderation with a probability of 0.74; *the traditional right's loss to the basket in cycles of weak growth is the sharpest conditional result of the paper (0.99).* Weak growth is the condition under which the inflation of necessities costs the mainstream right most and the far-right gains most, without that gain being clearly established; strong growth does not turn the far-right's gain into a loss, it removes it.

The fifth claim is related to the working class substitution over time on the left. There is dealignment of workers, rather than realignment, in the sense in which Gougou and Mayer (2013) separate the two: workers leave the socialist left faster than they arrive anywhere else, and, since the outcome is party choice among voters, the abstention through which economically insecure workers also respond lies outside these models (Bornschier & Kriesi, 2013). The working class is where the left's decline is fastest, not where the far-right's rise is (because it has proven diversified in classes).

The sixth claim is that *the far-right's gain from the basket, where it appears, is a gain from market prices especially in hard conditions*: from the market part of the basket (0.93), late in the period where insecurity is widespread (0.96), and in cycles of weak growth (0.83). Each of these is a reasonable probability on its own; their recurrence with the same sign across exposures, conditions and time is what the multiverse adds. Read relationally, the all of those claims describe one process: the inflation of necessities weakens the mainstream right where material conditions are worst, its voters disperse rather than move to the far-right, the socialist left loses over time the capacity to capture the grievance, and the far-right gains where that capacity has been lost.

Reading the historical process, between 2004 and 2021 the inflation of necessities arrived in cycles, from world markets, in doses that each cycle's budget weights had fixed before the prices moved; it cost the mainstream right votes where material conditions were worst, dispersed those votes rather than delivering them to the far-right, and reached the far-right late, where pessimism was widespread and where the left had lost the capacity to channel the grievance. The surge of 2021-2022 fell on the same prices, in larger doses and in a single episode common to all countries, and the elections that followed it were contested by far-right parties that had already become, within our episode, the party of the expectation of decline. Whether the same composition of inflation produced the same relational pattern, or whether the far-right channel in our episode became the main one, is the question that this baseline makes answerable. That is what the historian's part of the work was for: the dataset was built so that the episode could be compared with itself, and it is built so that the next episode can be compared with it. The design does not need to change to answer the question: the dataset extends backwards to the elections of the 1990s, when the far-right was small and the commodity cycles had not begun, and forwards to the elections of 2022-2025, and the comparison of each country with itself across its cycles is, in both directions, the same comparison.

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